A Latent Oscillator Measurement Model to Simulate Emotional-Expression Score Dynamics in Video

Aleksandar Tomašević Hudson Golino Alexander P. Christensen

Abstract

Facial-expression classifiers convert video of a person into multivariate time series of classifier scores. These scores contain measurement error from the classifier, the video, and the recording conditions, and the latent structure that generated them is unknown. Empirical score series alone therefore cannot show whether the score channels are indicators of a smaller number of latent expressive processes, or whether an analysis method would recover those processes if they existed. We introduce the Latent Oscillator Measurement Model (LOMM), a data-generating model that specifies three components separately: latent dynamics as damped, undamped, or amplifying linear oscillators; a time-varying activity level that determines how strongly each latent dimension is expressed; and a factor-analytic observation model with fallible indicators. Study 1 compared simulated score series with classifier scores from 100 facial-expression video clips using five-fold cross-fitting, in which parameters were estimated on training clips and discrepancies were evaluated on held-out clips. Allowing clips to differ in baseline and scale reduced the composite discrepancy by 21.0%, from 0.3250 to 0.2567. Study 2 generated continuous indicators with a known number of dimensions and known indicator assignments and asked whether four methods, Dynamic Exploratory Graph Analysis (DynEGA), static EGA, GraphicalVAR, and GIMME, recovered that structure through a common community-detection step. At 100 observations per clip, with failed or timed-out fits counted as incorrect, overall correct-dimension recovery was 0.939 for DynEGA, 0.884 for static EGA, 0.777 for GraphicalVAR, and 0.176 for GIMME. Replacing a shared initial state with independent initial states reduced recovery for DynEGA, static EGA, and GraphicalVAR, so a shared initial state overstates recovery. LOMM lets researchers test whether a method recovers a known structure before empirical score patterns are interpreted psychologically.

Introduction

Facial-expression classifiers convert video of a person into multivariate time series. Each frame yields a vector of scores, one for each label in a chosen label set, at a temporal resolution that manual coding cannot match.

Earlier classifiers returned scores only for the categories in their training data. Vision-language models such as CLIP can score any label supplied as text (Foteinopoulou & Patras, 2023; Li et al., 2023; Radford et al., 2021). The scores are nonetheless measurements: they depend on the model, the label set, the video-processing pipeline, image quality, and recording conditions, and their accuracy varies with model adaptation, label choice, and evaluation data (Foteinopoulou & Patras, 2023; Li et al., 2023). A pattern among score channels may therefore reflect expressive behavior, the measurement process, or both. In this paper, classifier scores are treated as fallible measurements of visible expression, not as measures of subjective emotional experience.

This raises a psychometric question. Score channels can be analyzed as separate variables, or they can be treated as fallible indicators of a smaller number of latent expressive processes (Mehu & Scherer, 2015; Nesselroade et al., 2002; Russell, 2003). Measurement error changes the structure that dynamic methods recover (Kankaanpää et al., 2026). Empirical data cannot settle the question, because the true number of latent dimensions and the true assignment of indicators to dimensions are unknown, so there is no way to check whether a method recovered them.

We introduce the Latent Oscillator Measurement Model (LOMM) to make that check possible. LOMM is a data-generating model for multivariate intensive longitudinal data with an explicit measurement model. It simulates latent processes that change over time, specifies how strongly each process is expressed at each observation, and maps the processes onto fallible observed indicators. The number of dimensions, the indicator assignments, the dynamics, the activity pattern, the loadings, and the measurement error are all fixed before a recovery method is applied. LOMM combines the damped linear oscillator model of intraindividual dynamics (Boker, 2015; Boker & Nesselroade, 2002) with a factor-analytic observation model (Nesselroade et al., 2002; Zhang et al., 2008).

We use LOMM in two studies (Figure 1). Study 1 compares simulated score series with classifier scores from 100 clips in MAFW, a facial-expression video database (Liu et al., 2022), and asks whether eight descriptive features of the simulated and real series are similar. Study 2 uses LOMM to generate continuous indicators with a known factor structure and asks whether four methods recover the number of dimensions and the indicator assignments: Dynamic Exploratory Graph Analysis (DynEGA), static EGA, GraphicalVAR, and GIMME. Static EGA ignores temporal order and is computationally inexpensive; it shows how much struc-

ture is recoverable from contemporaneous indicator levels alone. Study 2 also examines two conditions that limit the main result: whether a shared initial state across dimensions inflates recovery, and whether the indicator grouping is preserved after the indicators are transformed to bounded scores that sum to one, as classifier scores do. Because the empirical clips are short (median 35 observations), Study 2 also reports a secondary analysis with 25 observations per clip.

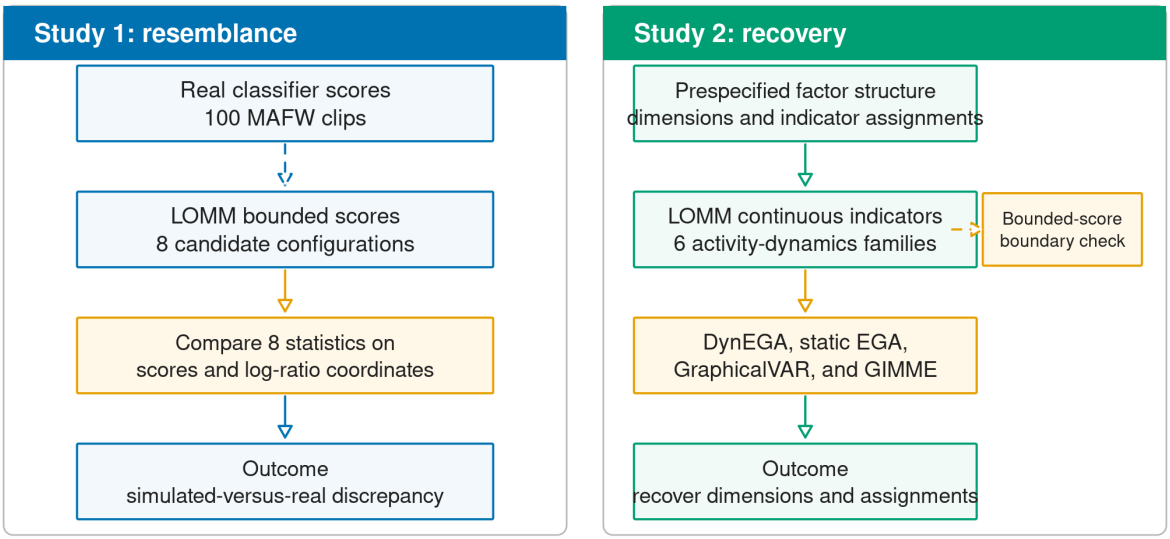


Figure 1: Overview of the two studies. Study 1 compares descriptive features of simulated bounded scores with classifier scores from MAFW videos. Study 2 compares the number of dimensions and the indicator assignments recovered by four methods with the factor structure used to generate continuous indicators. A separate Study 2 condition tests whether that grouping is preserved after the indicators are transformed to scores that sum to one.

The Latent Oscillator Measurement Model

LOMM represents a standard psychometric situation: several observed variables are fallible indicators of a smaller number of latent processes, and those processes change over time. As an illustration, suppose a simulation has three latent dimensions labeled approach-affiliation, threat-defense, and orienting-novelty, and the anger, fear, disgust, and anxiety channels are assigned as indicators of threat-defense. Those four channels would covary over time because they load on the same latent dimension, and each would also carry channel-specific measurement error. A recovery method should group the four channels together and should find three dimensions. These labels only illustrate a possible simulation design; whether MAFW scores have this structure is not tested here.

LOMM generates data in three layers. The latent layer describes how each latent dimension changes over time. The activity layer determines how strongly that dimension is expressed at each observation. The observation layer creates multiple indicators with prespecified loadings and measurement error. Keeping these layers separate allows a researcher to change the dynamics, the expression pattern, or the measurement quality while holding the other components fixed.

Notation. Clips are indexed by $i = 1, \dots, N$ and observations within a clip by $n = 1, \dots, T$, at times $t_n = (n-1)\Delta$, where Δ is the observation interval. Latent dimensions are indexed by $f = 1, \dots, m$. Continuous indicators are indexed by $j = 1, \dots, p$; in Study 2, $p = mk$ with k indicators per dimension. Bounded scores have J channels. Bold symbols are vectors or matrices.

For clip i and latent dimension f, let $x_{if}(t)$ denote the latent level and $\dot{x}_{if}(t)$ its rate of change. LOMM treats each dimension as a linear second-order oscillator:

$$\ddot{x}_{if}(t) = \eta_f x_{if}(t) + \zeta_f \dot{x}_{if}(t) + q_{if,n}, \qquad t \in [t_n, t_{n+1}). \tag{1}$$

Equation 1 is the damped linear oscillator used in research on intraindividual dynamics (Boker & Nesselroade, 2002). The position-feedback parameter η_f determines the strength of the restoring force toward equilibrium; more negative values produce faster oscillation. The velocity-feedback parameter ζ_f determines damping: negative values damp the motion, zero leaves it undamped, and positive values amplify it. The term $q_{if,n}$ is a random acceleration input, drawn independently for each interval between observations n and $n+1$ and held constant within that interval; it produces irregular peaks and reversals in the trajectory. When η_f and ζ_f are both negative, the trajectory returns toward equilibrium, with oscillation when the characteristic roots are complex. In the conditions tested here, positive ζ_f produces amplitudes that grow over the observed record; we call this finite-horizon amplification because the record ends before the growth becomes extreme. Appendix A gives the exact discrete-time transition used to advance the system between observations, the stability conditions, and the initialization rules.

The activity layer multiplies the latent level at each observation by a nonnegative activity value, $\tilde{x}_{if,n} = a_{if,n} x_{if,n}$. A latent dimension can therefore remain strongly expressed throughout a clip, remain near a low background level, or alternate with other dimensions. This layer matters for recovery because an abrupt change in activity produces a large change in the observed indicators even when the oscillator itself has not accelerated.

The observation layer is a standard factor model:

$$\mathbf{z}_{in} = \Lambda_i \tilde{\mathbf{x}}_{in} + \varepsilon_{in}, \qquad \varepsilon_{in} \sim \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{0}, \Sigma_i). \tag{2}$$

Row j of Λ_i contains the loadings of indicator j on the m latent dimensions, and ε_{in} is measurement error with covariance Σ_i. Appendix A gives the complete observation equation, including optional clip-specific baseline and scale terms.

LOMM can output two types of observed variables. The first is the vector of continuous indicators $\mathbf{z}_{in}$, used in the primary Study 2 designs; there, the factor structure that generated the data is defined directly on the analyzed variables. The second is a vector of J positive scores that sum to one, which matches the form of classifier output and is used in Study 1. To produce bounded scores, LOMM maps the latent dimensions to a $(J-1)$-dimensional vector of log-ratio coordinates and applies the softmax function. Because scores that sum to one are compositional data, they are analyzed both as scores and in log-ratio coordinates, which remove the sum constraint. A separate Study 2 condition applies the softmax directly to the p continuous indicators and tests whether their original grouping is preserved. Appendix A gives the softmax, log-ratio, and identification details.

In this paper, LOMM is used only to generate data with known dimensionality and indicator assignments; it is not fitted to the MAFW videos. Study 1 estimates the distribution of clip baselines and scales from training clips. The primary Study 2 design sets clip baselines to zero and scales to one but lets loadings and residual variances vary slightly across clips. Estimating oscillator, activity, and measurement parameters from empirical data would require the sign, scale, temperature, and frequency constraints stated in Appendix A.

Study 1: Comparing Simulated and Real Score Series

Study 1 asks whether LOMM can reproduce selected statistical features of real classifier-score series. The real series come from 100 clips in MAFW, a large multimodal database of facial-expression video recorded in naturalistic settings (Liu et al., 2022). Frames were scored with the transforEmotion R package (Tomašević et al., 2026) using OpenAI's CLIP ViT-Large/14 model (setting `oai-large`), with up to 50 frames sampled per clip. Eleven labels from the MAFW label set served as the text prompts: anger, disgust, fear, happiness, neutral, sadness, surprise, contempt, anxiety, helplessness, and disappointment. For each frame, the classifier returns one score per label, normalized to sum to one. These eleven scores are the channels analyzed here. They are classifier outputs; nothing in the dataset or the scoring procedure validates them as measures of

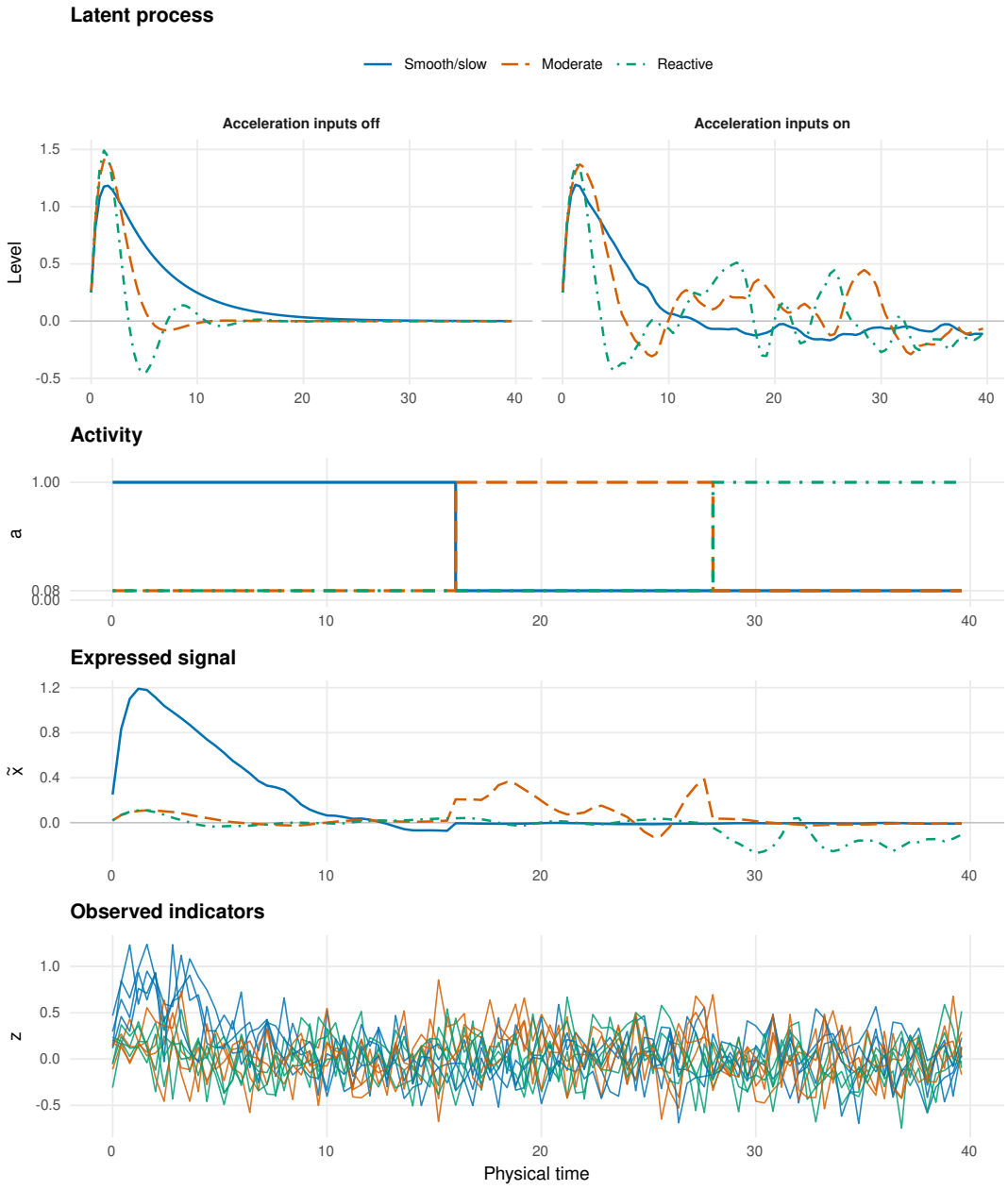


Figure 2: A worked LOMM example for one latent dimension. Panels from top to bottom: the latent trajectory without and with acceleration inputs; the activity schedule; the expressed signal, which is the product of the latent level and the activity value; and four observed indicators that load on the expressed signal plus measurement error.

subjective emotion.

Figure 3 shows the score series for one clip. Frames without a detected face have missing scores, so each clip was divided into segments of consecutive scored frames. The main analysis contains 3,557 observations in 188 segments from the 100 clips; segment lengths range from 16 to 50 observations, with a median of 35. Because segments are short, autocorrelation and spectral statistics are estimated imprecisely. A sensitivity analysis interpolated internal gaps of at most two frames, producing longer segments. Appendix B gives the face-detection, score-validity, missing-data, and sampling details.



Figure 3: Score series from one MAFW clip. Panel A shows four frames from the clip, reproduced under the MAFW research-use terms. Panel B shows the eleven classifier scores for those frames. Panel C shows smoothed score trajectories for the channels with the highest mean scores. Scores were generated with transforEmotion using OpenAI CLIP ViT-Large/14.

Study 1 compares eight LOMM configurations, formed by including or excluding each of three features: clip-specific baseline, clip-specific scale, and a brief transition in activity. Each configuration is compared with the real data on eight summary statistics. Six are computed for each score channel within each clip: median level; interquartile range of levels; interquartile range of observation-to-observation changes; lag-1 autocorrelation; entropy of the distribution of monotonic run lengths, which summarizes how often the

series changes direction; and normalized spectral entropy, which is low when variance is concentrated at a few frequencies and high when it is spread across many. Two are computed across channels within a clip: effective rank, which summarizes how many independent components the channels contain, and total variance. All eight statistics are computed on the scores and on their log-ratio coordinates, giving 16 comparisons.

For each statistic and each representation, discrepancy is computed from the distributions of the statistic across clips in the simulated and real data, in three steps. First, two distances are computed: the absolute difference between the simulated and real medians, and the Wasserstein distance between the two distributions, which measures how far one distribution must be shifted to match the other. Second, both distances are standardized by the spread of the real values, and the larger is retained. Third, the eight standardized distances are averaged within each representation, and the score and log-ratio averages are weighted equally in the composite. Smaller values indicate closer agreement.

The 100 clips were divided into five folds of 20 clips. Within each fold, the measurement parameters (coordinate center, loading directions and scales, and the covariance of clip baselines) were estimated from the 80 training clips, and the oscillator period, damping ratio, and observation scale were selected from a small grid using training clips only. Each selected configuration then generated 100 simulated datasets matching the held-out clips' observation indices and segment structure, and discrepancy was computed on the held-out clips. Because the same held-out folds were used both to compare the eight configurations and to select the best one, the reported discrepancy of the selected configuration is optimistically biased. The analysis is therefore an exploratory comparison, not an external validation. Appendix B gives the complete discrepancy, calibration, search, and bootstrap procedures.

Study 2: Recovery of Dimensionality and Indicator Assignments

Data-generating conditions. Study 2 asks whether four network-based methods recover a prespecified number of dimensions and a prespecified assignment of indicators to dimensions. The primary analyses use continuous indicators generated by LOMM. Each dataset contains N clips with T observations each and $p = mk$ indicators. All clips in a dataset share the same indicator assignments and the same nominal loadings and residual variances; each clip's loadings and residual variances are perturbed by small random amounts. Datasets are generated under six scenario families (Table 1), which differ in how strongly and how persistently each latent dimension is expressed and in whether the oscillator dynamics are stable or amplifying. Appendix B gives the exact activity schedules and parameters.

Every method receives the same simulated dataset. Each method estimates its own structure, that structure

is converted to an undirected network by a prespecified rule, and the same community-detection procedure identifies groups of indicators. The estimated grouping is then compared with the assignment used to generate the data. This creates a common recovery target while preserving each method's own statistical model and data handling.

Table 1: The six Study 2 scenario families. Numeric activity gains, dwell fractions, and oscillator parameters are in Appendix B.

Code	Family
A	Weak expression, one dominant dimension
B	Strong expression, one dominant dimension
C	Strong expression, switching dominant dimension
D	Strong expression, rapid switching
E	Amplifying dynamics, one dominant dimension
F	Amplifying dynamics, switching dominant dimension

Table 2: The four Study 2 methods, the structure each supplies for the common grouping step, and its role in the comparison.

Method	Structure used for grouping	Role in the comparison
DynEGA	Partial-correlation network of estimated changes	Method of primary interest
Static EGA	Partial-correlation network of contemporaneous levels	Ignores temporal order; computationally inexpensive benchmark
GraphicalVAR	Contemporaneous residual partial-correlation network	Dynamic network model with lagged and contemporaneous relations
GIMME	Average residual-covariance network across clip-level fits	Fitted per clip and averaged; tests computational feasibility

Recovery procedures. DynEGA (Boker et al., 2010; H. Golino et al., 2020; H. Golino et al., 2022; H. F. Golino & Epskamp, 2017) is the method of primary interest. It estimates the first derivative of each indicator from time-delay embeddings, estimates a regularized partial-correlation network among the derivatives, and applies a community-detection algorithm to the network; the communities are the estimated dimensions. GraphicalVAR (Epskamp et al., 2018; Epskamp, 2024) fits a multilevel vector autoregression that separates lagged from contemporaneous relations; its contemporaneous residual partial-correlation network is used for grouping. GIMME (Gates & Molenaar, 2012; Lane et al., 2019) fits a structural vector autoregression

to each clip separately; residual covariance matrices from successful fits are averaged across clips, and the average is used for grouping. This use of GIMME is computationally demanding and differs from its intended idiographic application, so the GIMME results apply to this comparison only.

Static EGA estimates a regularized partial-correlation network from the contemporaneous correlation matrix of indicator levels, ignoring the observation order, and applies the same community-detection step. It serves two purposes. Statistically, it shows how much of the grouping is recoverable from contemporaneous levels alone; if most of it is, a dynamic model cannot add much for this recovery target. Computationally, it requires far less time than the dynamic methods. Comparing static EGA with DynEGA and GraphicalVAR therefore shows whether modeling temporal structure improves grouping enough to justify its computational cost in these conditions.

Primary design and outcomes. The primary design uses $T = 100$ observations per clip and contains 21,600 datasets. It crosses the six scenario families, $m \in \{2, 3\}$ dimensions, $N \in \{50, 100\}$ clips, three loading levels (0.40, 0.60, 0.80), three residual standard deviations (0.125, 0.25, 0.50), and 100 replications, with $k = 4$ indicators per dimension. Every method receives the same dataset within a condition and replication. Because the MAFW segments have a median length of 35 observations, the same 21,600 conditions were also run with $T = 25$ and are reported as a secondary analysis. Louvain at resolution 1.0 is the primary community-detection algorithm; Leiden and Walktrap were applied to the same fitted networks as sensitivity analyses.

The primary outcome is the overall correct-dimension recovery rate: the proportion of datasets in which the method returned a valid network and the estimated number of dimensions equaled m. A failed or timed-out fit counts as an unsuccessful recovery. We also report the valid-output rate and the correct-dimension rate among valid outputs, so that computational feasibility and accuracy can be examined separately. Assignment accuracy, the adjusted Rand index, and variation of information compare the full estimated partition of indicators with the true partition among valid outputs. A secondary diagnostic summarizes each recovered group by its first principal component and compares that summary with the corresponding latent trajectory; these trajectory diagnostics are reported in Appendix C and are not primary outcomes.

Additional analyses. Three additional analyses examine the limits of the primary result. First, one-at-a-time sensitivity analyses start from a reference condition ($N = 100$, $T = 100$, loading 0.60, residual SD 0.25, shared initial state) and change one feature: independent rather than shared initial states, gradual rather than abrupt activity transitions, small cross-loadings, residual correlation between indicators, correlated acceleration inputs, or transformation of the indicators to bounded scores. The bounded-score condition

applies the softmax function directly to the p continuous indicators and analyzes either the p scores or their centered log-ratio (CLR) components. Because the transformed scores must sum to one, the original block structure among the p variables need not be preserved. Second, a small analysis adds clip-specific baseline and scale differences, with baselines constrained to the column space of the loading matrix so that they add no structure outside the factor model. Third, an extended factorial simulation of 518,400 datasets evaluates DynEGA alone over additional numbers of dimensions, indicators per dimension, and observation schedules. Appendix B gives the exact settings for every analysis.

Results

Study 1 Results: Similarity of Simulated and Real Score Series

Figure 4 shows the discrepancy on the score representation for all eight configurations, using the configuration names from the figure. In the *common baseline and scale* configuration every clip has the same baseline and scale. The *clip baseline*, *clip scale*, and *clip baseline + scale* configurations let clips differ in level, in variability, or in both. The remaining configurations add a brief activity transition to each of these.

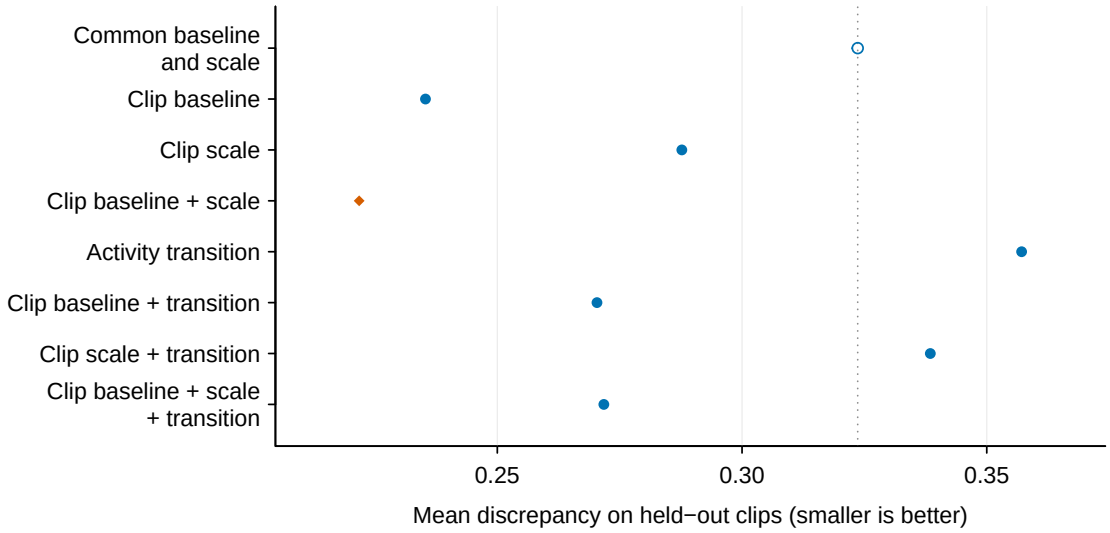


Figure 4: Discrepancy between simulated and real series on the score representation for the eight configurations in the five-fold cross-fitted comparison. Each point averages the eight summary-statistic discrepancies; smaller values indicate closer agreement. The diamond marks the clip baseline + scale configuration. The composite used for selection weighted this score representation and the log-ratio representation equally. Appendix C reports both representations and the bootstrap diagnostics.

Averaged over the score and log-ratio representations, the clip baseline + scale configuration had a composite

discrepancy of 0.2567, compared with 0.3250 for the common baseline and scale configuration, a reduction of 21.0%. Most of the reduction came from the clip baseline (0.2766 for clip baseline alone); clip scale contributed less, and adding a brief activity transition increased discrepancy. The gap-interpolated sensitivity analysis gave the same ordering: 0.2511 for clip baseline + scale, 0.2707 for clip baseline, and 0.3187 for common baseline and scale.

Substantial discrepancies remained for some statistics. The largest concerned total variance of the scores and the interquartile range of observation-to-observation changes in log-ratio coordinates. Because the same held-out folds were used to compare and to select configurations, these results are exploratory. They support clip-specific baseline and scale as a reasonable starting point for simulating classifier-score series; they do not validate the classifier labels or LOMM as a model of emotional expression. Appendix C reports every configuration and statistic, the bootstrap diagnostics, and, for the example clip, the closest of 100 simulated realizations.

Study 2 Results: Recovery of Dimensionality and Indicator Assignments

Table 3 reports the $T = 100$ results under Louvain. The overall recovery rate requires both a valid network and the correct number of dimensions, so every failure and timeout counts against it. The last two columns report assignment accuracy among valid outputs and median runtime.

Table 3: Results for the primary $T = 100$ design under Louvain. Assignment accuracy is computed among valid network outputs. Runtime is the median, in seconds, among valid network outputs and includes model fitting, network extraction, and community detection.

Method	Valid output	Correct given valid	Overall recovery	Assignment accuracy	Median runtime, s
DynEGA	1.000	0.939	0.939	0.965	3.69
Static EGA	0.997	0.887	0.884	0.922	2.15
GraphicalVAR	0.941	0.826	0.777	0.902	85.41
GIMME	0.224	0.783	0.176	0.877	518.16

DynEGA returned a valid network for all 21,600 datasets and had the highest overall recovery rate, 0.939. Static EGA followed at 0.884, which shows that most of the grouping was recoverable from contemporaneous indicator levels. GraphicalVAR reached 0.777. GIMME recovered the correct dimension in 0.783 of its valid outputs but returned a valid network for only 0.224 of datasets, so its overall recovery was 0.176. Assignment accuracy among valid outputs was 0.965 for DynEGA, 0.922 for static EGA, 0.902 for GraphicalVAR, and 0.877 for GIMME. Static EGA was about 40 times faster than GraphicalVAR and had higher overall recovery and assignment accuracy for this target. GraphicalVAR estimates a more complex model that includes lagged effects; the comparison evaluates only whether that additional structure improved recovery of the grouping

under these conditions. Appendix C reports Monte Carlo standard errors, bootstrap intervals, and the remaining partition diagnostics.

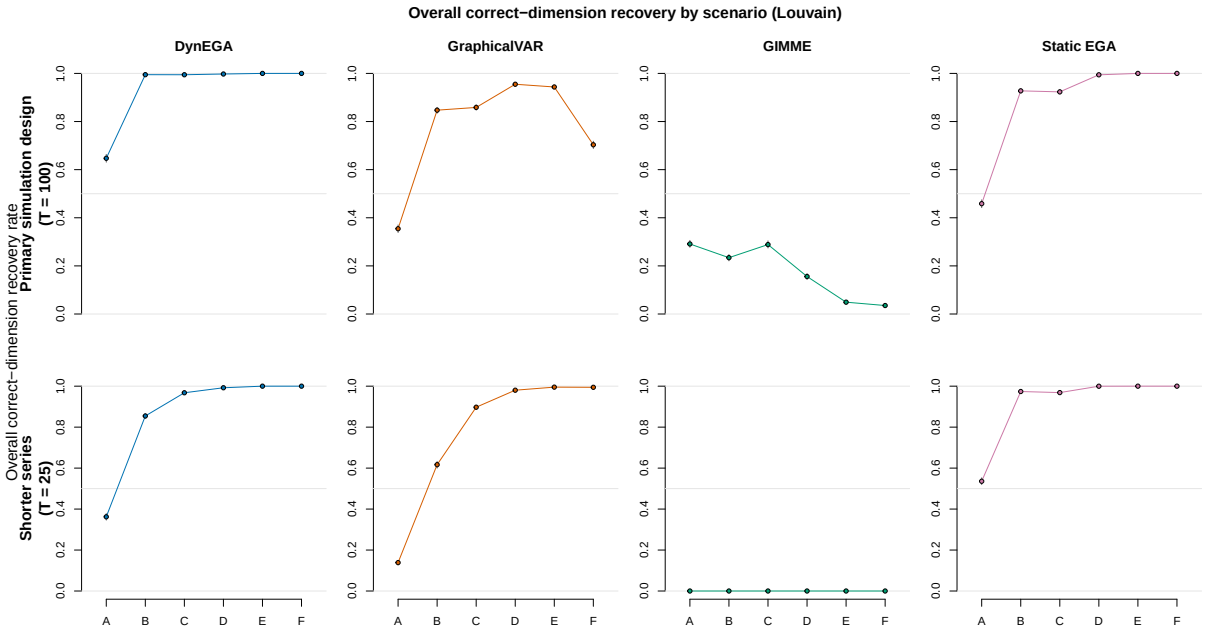


Figure 5: Overall correct-dimension recovery under Louvain by scenario family (codes as in Table 1), method, and observations per clip ($T = 100$, top; $T = 25$, bottom). A recovery requires a valid network output and the correct number of dimensions. Error bars are 95% bootstrap intervals from resampling whole datasets.

Recovery varied across scenario families and observations per clip (Figure 5). DynEGA had the highest recovery in most conditions. Static EGA's recovery was high because the block structure was present in contemporaneous levels. GraphicalVAR's recovery was lowest when expression was weak or measurement error was large. GIMME's low overall rates mainly reflected missing valid outputs. In the extended factorial simulation, DynEGA recovered the correct number of dimensions in 93.7% of 518,400 datasets and assigned 95.2% of indicators correctly; stronger loadings and smaller residual error improved recovery. Leiden and Walktrap led to the same conclusions as Louvain.

As a secondary diagnostic, each recovered group was summarized by its first principal component and compared with the corresponding activity-scaled latent trajectory. Among valid outputs with the correct number of dimensions at $T = 100$, the correlation and normalized RMSE were 0.574 and 1.418 for DynEGA, 0.791 and 0.568 for GraphicalVAR, 0.606 and 0.898 for GIMME, and 0.787 and 0.563 for static EGA. This ordering differs from the ordering for dimensional recovery. Grouping recovery and trajectory recovery are different targets, and neither ordering ranks the methods in general. Appendix C reports the complete

diagnostics.

Robustness and Sensitivity Analyses

Shorter records. With $T = 25$, static EGA had the highest overall recovery, 0.913, followed by DynEGA, 0.863, and GraphicalVAR, 0.770. Shortening the record slightly reduced DynEGA's recovery, left GraphicalVAR's about the same, and increased static EGA's. Under the 900-second limit, no GIMME fit at $T = 25$ returned a valid network.

Initial states. In the reference condition of the one-at-a-time analyses ($N = 100$, $T = 100$, loading 0.60, residual SD 0.25, shared initial state), overall recovery was 0.993 for DynEGA, 0.912 for static EGA, and 0.683 for GraphicalVAR. Replacing the shared initial state with independent initial states produced the largest change of any sensitivity condition: recovery fell to 0.838, 0.525, and 0.253, respectively. A shared initial state therefore overstates recovery for all three methods.

Other one-at-a-time changes. Gradual activity transitions, small cross-loadings, and correlated acceleration inputs changed recovery little. A residual correlation of 0.10 between every pair of indicators increased recovery for GraphicalVAR and static EGA, but because that correlation also links indicators of different dimensions, the increase should not be read as improved performance.

Bounded scores. Transforming the p indicators to scores that sum to one changed the variables being analyzed and sharply reduced recovery of the original grouping. DynEGA recovered the correct number of dimensions in 0.333 of datasets analyzed as CLR components and 0.233 analyzed as raw scores; the corresponding rates were 0.333 and 0.167 for static EGA and 0.087 and 0.002 for GraphicalVAR. The softmax transformation and the accompanying projection onto the zero-sum subspace did not preserve the structure among the original indicators. For this reason, the Study 2 recovery results apply to continuous indicators and are not extended to bounded scores of the kind analyzed in Study 1.

Between-clip baseline and scale. This analysis used stable families A–D with independent stationary initial states, so its reference recovery rates are lower than in the shared-initial-state analyses. Adding clip-specific baseline and scale changed DynEGA's recovery from 0.775 to 0.750, a paired difference of -0.025 (95% interval $[-0.100, 0.050]$). Static EGA rose from 0.275 to 1.000: the added baselines lie in the column space of the loadings, so they add between-clip variation that follows the intended grouping. GraphicalVAR and GIMME were unchanged, but those estimates rest on very few valid outputs; GraphicalVAR produced three correct outputs among 80 datasets, and every three-dimensional GIMME fit timed out.

Runtime and feasibility. Median runtime among valid $T = 100$ outputs was 2.15 s for static EGA, 3.69 s for

DynEGA, 85.41 s for GraphicalVAR, and 518.16 s for GIMME. GraphicalVAR timed out on 1,271 of 21,600 fits. GIMME produced 4,846 valid outputs, 14,477 timeouts, and 2,277 post-estimation errors. DynEGA returned a valid output for every fit in the primary and extended designs. These runtimes are specific to our implementation and hardware. Appendix C gives the full runtime, factorial, and community-detection results.

Discussion

LOMM addresses a common measurement problem in behavioral research. A classifier can produce multivariate time series from video, and an analysis can return dimensions or networks from those series, yet the empirical data alone cannot reveal whether the intended structure was recoverable. LOMM makes the recovery target explicit by specifying latent dynamics, time-varying activity, and the observation model separately. This separation is the paper's central contribution. It also applies beyond video whenever intensive longitudinal measures are treated as fallible indicators of lower-dimensional psychological processes. CLIP is not part of LOMM; it is the scoring pipeline that produced the empirical series in Study 1.

Study 1 asked whether LOMM output resembles the score series from that pipeline. Letting clips differ in baseline and scale reduced the composite discrepancy by 21.0%, most of it from the baseline. This result is specific to 100 MAFW clips, one label set, one scoring model, and the chosen summary statistics, and because the held-out folds were used both to compare and to select configurations, it is exploratory. It supports a starting point for simulating such series; it does not validate the emotion labels or LOMM as a substantive theory of expression.

Study 2 evaluated recovery of a known factor structure from continuous indicators. DynEGA had the highest overall recovery and was the only method feasible in the extended factorial simulation. Static EGA showed that most of the grouping was recoverable from contemporaneous levels; it exceeded GraphicalVAR in both dimensional recovery and assignment accuracy while running in a median of 2.15 s rather than 85.41 s. The practical implication is that, for this recovery target and these conditions, modeling temporal structure did not improve recovery enough to offset its computational cost. GraphicalVAR answers additional questions about lagged relations, which this comparison does not evaluate.

The trajectory diagnostics in Appendix C show that the ranking of methods depends on the recovery target. DynEGA's advantage concerned recovery of the number of dimensions and the indicator partition; alignment of recovered-group summaries with the latent trajectories produced a different ordering. The two targets should be evaluated separately. All comparisons apply to the specific estimation, network-conversion, and

grouping procedures used here. GIMME's low overall recovery mainly reflected its failure to return valid outputs under a clip-level fitting procedure that differs from its usual use.

The most important qualification of the primary result concerns initial states. A shared starting state creates a shared initial transient across dimensions, which adds recoverable structure that is not part of the measurement partition. Independent initial states reduced recovery for DynEGA, static EGA, and GraphicalVAR, so the shared-initial-state design overstated recovery. Gradual activity transitions, small cross-loadings, and correlated acceleration inputs changed little. The bounded-score condition set a clearer limit: the softmax transformation changed the associations among the original indicators, and neither the raw scores nor the CLR components preserved the original grouping. The Study 2 recovery claims therefore apply to continuous indicators.

Limitations. Several limitations remain. The latent dimensions are uncoupled. The amplifying families produce large amplitudes late in the record and test recovery under those conditions only. The $T = 300$ conditions also change the observation interval, so they do not isolate the number of observations per clip. The GIMME residual-covariance conversion was constructed for this comparison and differs from typical idiographic use. Study 1 uses short clips from one controlled-access dataset and one zero-shot scoring pipeline. LOMM is used here only as a generator with prespecified parameters; estimating it from data would require the identification constraints listed in Appendix A.

Three practical conclusions follow. Initial conditions can create structure unrelated to the intended measurement partition. Transforming indicators to bounded scores can change the structure among the analyzed variables. Computational feasibility belongs in any recovery evaluation, because a method that returns no output cannot recover the target. Applied researchers should therefore specify the latent dynamics, activity process, observation model, and recovery target before interpreting an empirical network. LOMM supports this workflow and can be extended to other scoring systems, coupled latent dimensions, and recovery targets defined directly for bounded data.

Declarations

Funding

The authors received no specific funding for this work.

Competing interests

The authors declare that they have no competing interests.

Ethics approval

This study used simulations and secondary video data obtained under the MAFW research-use terms. It involved no new recruitment, intervention, or direct collection of human-participant data by the authors.

Consent to participate

Not applicable.

Consent for publication

The manuscript includes four still frames from MAFW solely to illustrate the score-extraction procedure. The frames are cited to the dataset, and no source video is redistributed. Their inclusion follows the dataset's terms for limited reproduction in academic publications.

Availability of data and materials

The project GitHub repository at https://github.com/atomashevic/LOMM contains the simulation summary results, analysis-ready tables underlying the figures, and aggregate MAFW-derived summaries used in the simulated-versus-real comparison. Raw MAFW videos and frame-level classifier scores are not redistributed. Access to MAFW is governed by the dataset provider, and an end-to-end reanalysis of Study 1 requires approved access and local generation of the classifier scores.

Code availability

Code for generating LOMM datasets, fitting the methods, reproducing the statistical summaries, and regenerating the tables and figures is available in the same GitHub repository. The repository also provides the manuscript source and instructions for reproducing the analyses.

Authors' contributions

Aleksandar Tomašević contributed conceptualization, formal analysis, methodology, resources, software, validation, visualization, writing the original draft, and reviewing and editing the manuscript. Hudson Golino contributed formal analysis, methodology, resources, software, validation, visualization, writing the original draft, and reviewing and editing the manuscript. Alexander P. Christensen contributed methodology, software, writing the original draft, and reviewing and editing the manuscript.

Open Practices Statement

The study was not preregistered. The simulation and analysis code, manuscript source, paper-facing tables, and aggregate MAFW-derived summaries used in the simulated-versus-real comparison are available at https://github.com/atomashevic/LOMM. Raw MAFW videos are third-party materials, and the frame-level classifier scores are derived from those restricted materials; neither is included.

References

Blondel, V. D., Guillaume, J.-L., Lambiotte, R., & Lefebvre, E. (2008). Fast unfolding of communities in large networks. *Journal of Statistical Mechanics: Theory and Experiment*, *2008*(10), P10008. https://doi.org/10.1088/1742-5468/2008/10/P10008

Boker, S. M. (2015). Adaptive equilibrium regulation: A balancing act in two timescales. *Journal for Person-Oriented Research*, *1*(1-2), 99–109. https://doi.org/10.17505/jpor.2015.10

Boker, S. M., Deboek, P. R., Edler, C., & Keel, P. (2010). Generalized local linear approximation of derivatives from time series. In S. M. Chow, E. Ferrer, & F. Hsieh (Eds.), *The notre dame series on quantitative methodology. Statistical methods for modeling human dynamics: An interdisciplinary dialogue* (pp. 161–178). Routledge/Taylor & Francis Group.

Boker, S. M., & Nesselroade, J. R. (2002). A Method for Modeling the Intrinsic Dynamics of Intraindividual Variability: Recovering the Parameters of Simulated Oscillators in Multi-Wave Panel Data. *Multivariate Behavioral Research*, *37*(1), 127–160. https://doi.org/10.1207/S15327906MBR3701_06

Epskamp, S. (2024). *graphicalVAR: Graphical VAR for experience sampling data*. https://CRAN.R-project.org/package=graphicalVAR

Epskamp, S., Waldorp, L. J., Mõttus, R., & Borsboom, D. (2018). The gaussian graphical model in cross-sectional and time-series data. *Multivariate Behavioral Research*, *53*(4), 453–480. https://doi.org/10.1080/00273171.2018.1454823

Foteinopoulou, N. M., & Patras, I. (2023). *EmoCLIP: A Vision-Language Method for Zero-Shot Video Facial Expression Recognition* (arXiv:2310.16640). arXiv. https://doi.org/10.48550/arXiv.2310.16640

Gates, K. M., & Molenaar, P. C. M. (2012). Group search algorithm recovers effective connectivity maps for individuals in homogeneous and heterogeneous samples. *NeuroImage*, *63*(1), 310–319. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.neuroimage.2012.06.026

Golino, H. F., & Epskamp, S. (2017). Exploratory graph analysis: A new approach for estimating the number of dimensions in psychological research. *PloS One*, *12*(6), e0174035. https://doi.org/10.1371/journal.pone.0174035

Golino, H., Christensen, A. P., Moulder, R., Kim, S., & Boker, S. M. (2022). Modeling latent topics in social media using dynamic exploratory graph analysis: The case of the right-wing and left-wing trolls in the 2016 US elections. *Psychometrika*, *87*(1), 156–187.

Golino, H., Shi, D., Garrido, L. E., Christensen, A. P., Nieto, M. D., Sadana, R., Thiyagarajan, J. A., & Martinez-Molina, A. (2020). Investigating the performance of exploratory graph analysis and traditional techniques to identify the number of latent factors: A simulation and tutorial. *Psychological Methods*, *25*(3), 292–320. https://doi.org/10.1037/met0000255

Kankaanpää, R., Ron, J. de, Hoekstra, R. H. A., & Bork, R. van. (2026). Comparing multiple-indicator approaches to account for measurement error in dynamic networks. *Cognitive Therapy and Research*. https://doi.org/10.1007/s10608-026-10719-0

Lane, S. T., Gates, K. M., Pike, H. K., Beltz, A. M., & Wright, A. G. C. (2019). Uncovering general, shared, and unique temporal patterns in ambulatory assessment data. *Psychological Methods*, *24*(1), 54–69. https://doi.org/10.1037/met0000192

Li, H., Niu, H., Zhu, Z., & Zhao, F. (2023). *CLIPER: A Unified Vision-Language Framework for In-the-Wild Facial Expression Recognition* (arXiv:2303.00193). arXiv. https://doi.org/10.48550/arXiv.2303.00193

Liu, Y., Dai, W., Feng, C., Wang, W., Yin, G., Zeng, J., & Shan, S. (2022). MAFW: A large-scale, multi-modal, compound affective database for dynamic facial expression recognition in the wild. *Proceedings of the 30th ACM International Conference on Multimedia*, 24–32. https://doi.org/10.1145/3503161.3548190

Mehu, M., & Scherer, K. R. (2015). Emotion categories and dimensions in the facial communication of affect: An integrated approach. *Emotion*, *15*(6), 798–811. https://doi.org/10.1037/a0039416

Nesselroade, J. R., McArdle, J. J., Aggen, S. H., & Meyers, J. M. (2002). Dynamic factor analysis models for representing process in multivariate time-series. In D. S. Moskowitz & S. L. Hershberger (Eds.), *Multivariate applications book series. Modeling intraindividual variability with repeated measures data: Methods and applications* (pp. 235--265). Lawrence Erlbaum Associates Publishers.

Pons, P., & Latapy, M. (2005). Computing communities in large networks using random walks. In Pi.

Yolum, T. Güngör, F. Gürgen, & C. Özturan (Eds.), *Computer and information sciences - ISCIS 2005* (pp. 284–293). Springer Berlin Heidelberg. https://doi.org/10.1007/11569596_31

Radford, A., Kim, J. W., Hallacy, C., Ramesh, A., Goh, G., Agarwal, S., Sastry, G., Askell, A., Mishkin, P., Clark, J., Krueger, G., & Sutskever, I. (2021). Learning transferable visual models from natural language supervision. *Proceedings of the 38th International Conference on Machine Learning*, 8748–8763.

Russell, J. A. (2003). Core affect and the psychological construction of emotion. *Psychological Review*, *110*(1), 145–172. https://doi.org/10.1037/0033-295X.110.1.145

Tomašević, A., Golino, H., & Christensen, A. (2026). transforEmotion: An open-source R package for emotion analysis using transformer-based generative AI models. *Computational Communication Research*, *8*(2), 1. https://doi.org/10.5117/CCR2026.2.2.TOMA

Traag, V. A., Waltman, L., & Eck, N. J. van. (2019). From louvain to leiden: Guaranteeing well-connected communities. *Scientific Reports*, *9*(1), 5233. https://doi.org/10.1038/s41598-019-41695-z

Zhang, Z., Hamaker, E. L., & Nesselroade, J. R. (2008). Comparisons of four methods for estimating a dynamic factor model. *Structural Equation Modeling: A Multidisciplinary Journal*, *15*(3), 377–402. https://doi.org/doi.org/10.1080/10705510802154281

Appendix A: Complete Specification of LOMM

This appendix gives the formal LOMM specification behind the conceptual account in the main text. It is intended for readers who want to reimplement the generator or examine its assumptions and identification limits.

A.1 The Latent Transition

Equation 1 gives the continuous-time oscillator. The implementation advances its two-component state exactly over one observation interval using

$$\Phi_f(\Delta) = \exp(\mathbf{A}_f\Delta), \qquad \mathbf{A}_f = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ \eta_f & \zeta_f \end{bmatrix} \qquad \text{and} \qquad \Gamma_f(\Delta) = \int_0^\Delta \exp(\mathbf{A}_f u)\mathbf{b}\, du, \quad \mathbf{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

For the nonzero position-feedback values used in the simulation grids, the input map has the equivalent exact form

$$\Gamma_f(\Delta) = \mathbf{A}_f^{-1}\{\Phi_f(\Delta) - \mathbf{I}_2\}\mathbf{b}.$$

The integral definition remains valid when $\mathbf{A}_f$ is singular, including $\eta_f = 0$. If a root-based closed form is used numerically, a separate repeated-root branch is required when $\zeta_f^2 + 4\eta_f$ is close to zero.

The state components $x_{if,n}$ and $v_{if,n}$ are the level and its rate of change at t_n; η_f is position feedback, ζ_f is velocity feedback, and σ_{qf} is the standard deviation of the acceleration input. On the interval $[t_n, t_{n+1})$ the underlying continuous-time model is $\ddot{x}_{if}(t) = \eta_f x_{if}(t) + \zeta_f \dot{x}_{if}(t) + q_{if,n}$ with $q_{if,n}$ held constant, so $\Phi_f(\Delta)$ propagates the deterministic state and $\Gamma_f(\Delta)$ loads the input. The inputs are independent across videos, dimensions, and transitions, and independent of initial states, activity schedules, and measurement errors. They are zero-order-hold acceleration inputs rather than increments of a continuous-time white-noise diffusion. The covariance added in one transition is $\Gamma_f(\Delta)\sigma_{qf}^2\Gamma_f(\Delta)^\top$.

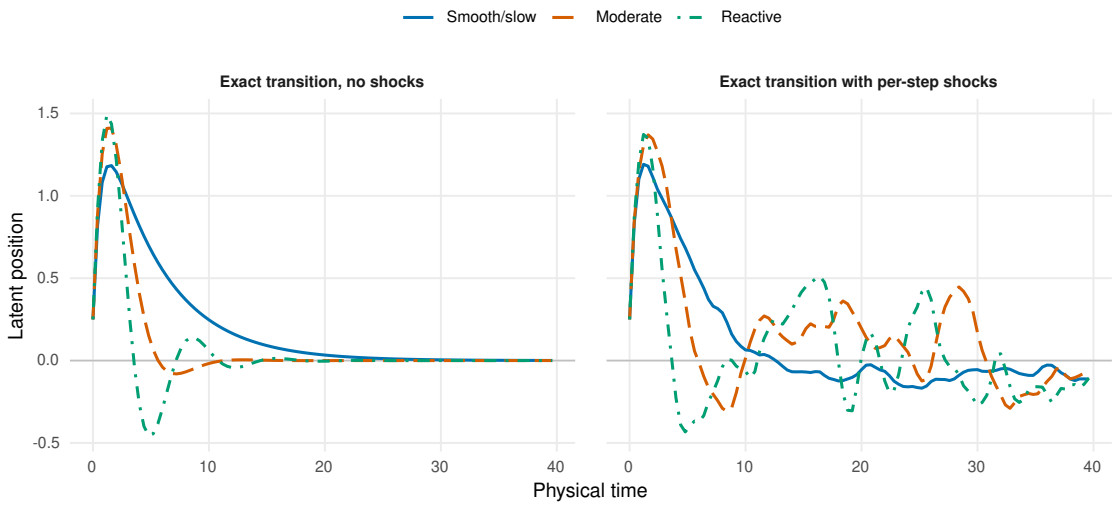


Figure A1: Illustrative latent trajectories for three uncoupled dimensions under the exact transition, shown without and with piecewise-constant acceleration inputs. The inputs create irregular peaks and reversals while the feedback parameters govern the underlying dynamic regime.

A.2 Dynamic Regimes and Finite-Horizon Amplification

The characteristic roots for dimension f are

$$r_{f,\pm} = \frac{\zeta_f \pm \sqrt{\zeta_f^2 + 4\eta_f}}{2}.$$

Continuous-time asymptotic stability requires $\eta_f < 0$ and $\zeta_f < 0$, and the roots are oscillatory when $\zeta_f^2 + 4\eta_f < 0$. The exact discrete transition is asymptotically stable when

$$\rho\{\Phi_f(\Delta)\} = \exp\left[\Delta \max\{\mathrm{Re}(r_{f,+}), \mathrm{Re}(r_{f,-})\}\right] < 1.$$

Negative η_f supplies restoring acceleration and negative ζ_f attenuates velocity, whereas positive ζ_f produces amplification. How much amplification actually appears depends on the observed horizon. For T observations, $H = (T-1)\Delta$. Let $\alpha(\mathbf{A}_f) = \max\{\mathrm{Re}(r_{f,+}), \mathrm{Re}(r_{f,-})\}$. The quantity

$$g_f(H) = \exp\{H\alpha(\mathbf{A}_f)\}$$

is a modal exponential-rate factor over that horizon. It does not by itself measure nonnormal transient amplification or the polynomial factor that can occur at a defective repeated root. A norm-based finite-

horizon state-amplification diagnostic is

$$G_f^{\max}(H) = \sup_{0 \le u \le H} \| \exp(\mathbf{A}_f u) \|_2,$$

and the corresponding level-only diagnostic is

$$G_{x,f}^{\max}(H) = \sup_{0 \le u \le H} \left\| \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \exp(\mathbf{A}_f u) \right\|_2 .$$

The Euclidean matrix norm is coordinate-dependent. Because the state combines a level and a rate of change, whose components have different units, this diagnostic is conditional on the chosen state coordinates and should be interpreted only after fixing a nondimensionalization or an explicit weighted state norm. A coordinate-aware definition is

$$G_{f,M}^{\max}(H) = \sup_{0 \le u \le H} \left\| \mathbf{M}^{1/2} \exp(\mathbf{A}_f u) \mathbf{M}^{-1/2} \right\|_2 ,$$

for a stated positive-definite state metric $\mathbf{M}$; the unweighted $G_f^{\max}(H)$ corresponds to $\mathbf{M} = \mathbf{I}_2$. Reporting the roots and $g_f(H)$ characterizes the modal regime over the observed horizon, but $g_f(H)$ should not be read as total finite-horizon amplification. Reporting the activity schedule separately keeps amplification in the latent dynamics distinct from nonstationarity created by the activity layer.

A.3 Initial States

The system is uncoupled: η_f, ζ_f, and σ_{qf} may vary by dimension, and off-diagonal dynamic effects are omitted. Study 2's primary simulation design initialized every dimension at $x_{if,1} = 0.25$ and $v_{if,1} = 2$. The sensitivity analysis used independent starting states. For a stable dimension, the stationary covariance $\mathbf{P}_f$ solves

$$\mathbf{P}_f = \Phi_f(\Delta) \mathbf{P}_f \Phi_f(\Delta)^\top + \Gamma_f(\Delta) \sigma_{qf}^2 \Gamma_f(\Delta)^\top,$$

whose solution is unique when $\rho\{\Phi_f(\Delta)\} < 1$. Drawing $\mathbf{s}_{if,1} \sim \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{0}, \mathbf{P}_f)$ makes the state process stationary before the activity layer is applied; time-varying activity modulation still renders $a_{if}(t) x_{if}(t)$ nonstationary. For a dimension with positive velocity feedback, the sensitivity draws $x_{if,1} \sim \text{Unif}(-0.25, 0.25)$ and $v_{if,1} \sim \text{Unif}(-2, 2)$. These independent starts remove the transient that all dimensions would otherwise share, while

leaving the observed horizon unchanged.

A.4 The Activity Layer at a Transition

Away from a discontinuity in the activity value, the ordinary product rule applies,

$$\frac{d}{dt}\{a_{if}(t)x_{if}(t)\} = a'_{if}(t)x_{if}(t) + a_{if}(t)x'_{if}(t).$$

At an abrupt transition, the derivative of the activity value contains an impulsive component in the distributional sense. Define $D_n x = x_{n+1} - x_n$. The exact discrete identity is

$$D_n(a_{if}x_{if}) = a_{if,n+1}D_n x_{if} + (D_n a_{if})x_{if,n},$$

where the first term uses the post-transition activity value and the second uses the pre-transition state. The corresponding finite-difference identity is

$$\frac{\tilde{x}_{if,n+1} - \tilde{x}_{if,n}}{\Delta} = a_{if,n+1}\frac{x_{if,n+1} - x_{if,n}}{\Delta} + \frac{a_{if,n+1} - a_{if,n}}{\Delta}x_{if,n}.$$

The second term is the term that enters an estimated derivative at an activity switch even when the oscillator itself has not accelerated; this motivates the gradual-transition sensitivity analysis. This convention attaches the new activity value to the post-transition observation, so the activity layer multiplies each completed latent state by the schedule value at the same observation index.

The activity schedule takes two nonnegative values, a_{high} and a_{low}. In non-switching families the dominant dimension remains at a_{high} for the whole record and the others remain at a_{low}. In switching families, dwell fractions determine how long each dimension remains dominant before the schedule reassigns a_{high}. Appendix B lists the numeric gains and dwell values used in the Study 2 families.

A.5 The Observation Layer

Let J denote the number of positive score channels, let $d = J - 1$, and let $\mathbf{V} \in \mathbb{R}^{J\times d}$ be a fixed orthonormal isometric log-ratio (ILR) basis satisfying $\mathbf{V}^\top\mathbf{V} = \mathbf{I}_d$ and $\mathbf{V}^\top\mathbf{1}_J = \mathbf{0}$. The Study 1 basis used here is a normalized Helmert basis constructed in the stated 11-channel order. The full observation model in log-ratio coordinates is

$$\mathbf{u}_{in} = \mu + \mathbf{b}_i + \kappa s_i \left(\Lambda_i \tilde{\mathbf{x}}_{in} + \varepsilon_{in}\right).$$

Here $\mu \in \mathbb{R}^d$ is a fixed center, $\mathbf{b}_i \in \mathbb{R}^d$ is the clip baseline, $s_i > 0$ is the clip scale, $\kappa > 0$ is a global scale, and $\Lambda_i \in \mathbb{R}^{d \times m}$ maps the m activity-scaled latent positions into these coordinates. The clip scale multiplies both signal and residual, whereas the baseline is additive. Conditional on the clip-specific terms and Σ_i, measurement errors are independent over time and across clips, and independent of latent states, initial states, activity schedules, and acceleration inputs, with $\varepsilon_{in} \mid \Sigma_i \sim \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{0}, \Sigma_i)$. Dependence across coordinates follows Σ_i. Designs with fixed measurement parameters set $\Lambda_i = \Lambda$ and $\Sigma_i = \Sigma$ for every clip. The residual-correlation sensitivity condition sets $\Sigma = s_\varepsilon^2\{(1-\rho)\mathbf{I}_p + \rho \mathbf{1}_p \mathbf{1}_p^\top\}$ with $\rho = 0.10$ across all p indicators, thereby introducing residual covariance both within and between the prespecified blocks.

The three baseline constructions differ only in the subspace from which $\mathbf{b}_i$ is drawn. Study 1 draws it from a zero-mean Gaussian whose covariance is estimated from training clips in the full coordinate space. Study 2's between-clip-variability analysis instead uses

$$\mathbf{b}_i = \Lambda \beta_i, \qquad E(\beta_i) = \mathbf{0},$$

so that between-clip variation stays within the space spanned by the loadings and does not introduce structure outside the factor model. Study 2 conditions without baseline and scale differences fix $\mathbf{b}_i = \mathbf{0}$ and $s_i = 1$, giving

$$\mathbf{u}_{in} = \mu + \kappa \left(\Lambda_i \tilde{\mathbf{x}}_{in} + \varepsilon_{in}\right).$$

In the matched-method and extended factorial designs, Λ_i and the diagonal of Σ_i receive small clip-specific perturbations to the loadings and residual variances. The one-at-a-time sensitivity and between-clip-variability designs use fixed equal values except where the stated condition changes them. Thus $\mathbf{b}_i = \mathbf{0}$ and $s_i = 1$ remove baseline and overall-scale differences; they do not by themselves imply a common loading matrix or residual covariance.

The continuous indicators used in Study 2's primary recovery designs are the indicator vector before any bounded-score mapping,

$$\mathbf{z}_{in} = \Lambda_i \tilde{\mathbf{x}}_{in} + \varepsilon_{in},$$

in which each of the $p = mk$ indicators loads on one dimension and has diagonal measurement error.

For bounded output, LOMM maps the coordinates to the open probability simplex. The centered log-ratio (CLR) expresses each channel relative to the geometric mean of all channels. The isometric log-ratio (ILR) represents the same information in $d = J - 1$ orthonormal coordinates. Formally,

$$\mathrm{clr}(\mathbf{p}) = \log \mathbf{p} - J^{-1}\{\mathbf{1}_J^\top \log(\mathbf{p})\}\mathbf{1}_J, \qquad \mathrm{ilr}_{\mathbf{V}}(\mathbf{p}) = \mathbf{V}^\top \mathrm{clr}(\mathbf{p}),$$

with the logarithm applied componentwise. For the canonical bounded LOMM output, applying softmax to $\mathbf{V}\mathbf{u}_{in}/\tau$ gives

$$\mathrm{ilr}_{\mathbf{V}}(\mathbf{p}_{in}) = \frac{\mathbf{u}_{in}}{\tau}, \qquad \mathrm{clr}(\mathbf{p}_{in}) = \frac{\mathbf{V}\mathbf{u}_{in}}{\tau},$$

the second because $\mathbf{V}\mathbf{u}_{in}$ lies in the zero-sum log-ratio subspace. The fixed basis excludes the unidentified common-logit direction and the softmax produces strictly positive rows summing to one, so the scores identify the scaled coordinates $\mathbf{u}_{in}/\tau$ exactly. A common-logit component remains unobservable, and the unscaled coordinates and τ are not separately identified without an external scale constraint.

The Study 2 bounded-score sensitivity condition uses the $p = mk$ continuous-indicator vector directly. With $J = p$, it computes

$$\mathbf{p}_{in}^{\mathrm{dep}} = \mathrm{softmax}\left(\frac{\mathbf{z}_{in}}{\tau}\right), \qquad \mathrm{clr}\big(\mathbf{p}_{in}^{\mathrm{dep}}\big) = \frac{1}{\tau}\mathbf{P}_p\mathbf{z}_{in}, \qquad \mathbf{P}_p = \mathbf{I}_p - \frac{\mathbf{1}_p\mathbf{1}_p^\top}{p}.$$

For any orthonormal ILR basis $\mathbf{V}_p \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times(p-1)}$, $\mathbf{V}_p\mathbf{V}_p^\top = \mathbf{P}_p$. Defining $\mathbf{u}_{in}^{\mathrm{dep}} = \mathbf{V}_p^\top\mathbf{z}_{in}$ therefore gives $\mathbf{V}_p\mathbf{u}_{in}^{\mathrm{dep}} = \mathbf{P}_p\mathbf{z}_{in}$. Softmax is invariant to the removed row mean, so the direct-softmax branch is equivalent to applying the basis form to $\mathbf{u}_{in}^{\mathrm{dep}}$. The analysis used the p raw scores and the p CLR components, which satisfy a zero-sum constraint; it did not analyze the $(p-1)$ ILR coordinates. The common-logit direction in $\mathbf{z}_{in}$ is unidentifiable after this transformation.

A.6 Converting Period and Damping to Feedback Parameters

Study 1's search was parameterized by natural period and damping ratio rather than by η_f and ζ_f directly. If P_f is the natural period in observation intervals and ξ_f is the damping ratio, then

$$\omega_{n,f} = \frac{2\pi}{P_f \Delta}, \qquad \eta_f = -\omega_{n,f}^2, \qquad \zeta_f = -2\xi_f \omega_{n,f},$$

and the damped angular frequency is $\omega_{d,f} = \omega_{n,f}\sqrt{1-\xi_f^2}$. With $P_f = 12$, $\xi_f = 0.5$, and $\Delta = 1$, these give $\eta_f = -0.2742$ and $\zeta_f = -0.5236$; scaling the inputs to unit stationary position variance gives $\sigma_{qf} = 0.5418$.

A.7 Identifiability

For any nonsingular diagonal matrix $\mathbf{D}$,

$$\Lambda \tilde{\mathbf{x}}_{in} = (\Lambda \mathbf{D}^{-1})(\mathbf{D}\tilde{\mathbf{x}}_{in}),$$

so loading magnitude and latent-trajectory scale are not jointly identified without an explicit scale constraint. Activity gain and acceleration-input scale contribute to latent amplitude in the same way. The softmax layer adds invariance to a common location shift and a tradeoff between the temperature and the coordinate scale. Dimension labels are recoverable only up to permutation.

Sampling cadence adds an aliasing restriction. For an underdamped dimension, write

$$r_{f,\pm} = \frac{\zeta_f}{2} \pm i\omega_f, \qquad \omega_f = \frac{1}{2}\sqrt{-(\zeta_f^2 + 4\eta_f)}.$$

At observation times $t_n = (n-1)\Delta$, the frequencies ω_f and $\omega_f + 2\pi q/\Delta$ for integer q generate the same sampled sine and cosine sequences after an appropriate change in initial velocity. Identifying continuous-time oscillator parameters from data therefore requires a cadence-dependent restriction such as

$$0 < \omega_f < \frac{\pi}{\Delta},$$

together with a specified acceleration-input model and constraints on the latent state basis. Estimating LOMM from data would in total require sign and scale constraints on the dimensions, normalization of the activity schedule, anchoring of either the loading scale or the input scale, a reference-logit or sum-to-zero constraint, a fixed or otherwise identified temperature, and this frequency restriction. Every oscillatory mode used here satisfies the restriction: Study 1 uses $\Delta = 1$, giving the most restrictive bound $\pi \approx 3.14$ against a largest angular frequency of approximately 0.78, and Study 2 uses $\Delta \in \{0.25, 0.4\}$, giving bounds of approximately 12.57 and 7.85 against a largest angular frequency of approximately 1.04. The simulations

574 do not estimate any of these parameters.

Appendix B: Study Designs and Implementation Details

This appendix gives the design and implementation details for both studies. Study 1 evaluates resemblance to real bounded-score series. Study 2 evaluates recovery of a prespecified factor structure from continuous indicators.

B.1 Study 1 Scoring and Calibration

The Study 1 sample was assembled one clip at a time, with MAFW category labels used to diversify the sample rather than as validation targets. The main analysis contains 3,557 observations in 188 uninterrupted segments from 100 clips. Segment lengths range from 16 to 50 observations, with a median of 35. The gap-interpolated sensitivity analysis contains 3,632 observations in 129 segments, with lengths from 17 to 50 and a median of 36.5.

transforEmotion sampled up to 50 frames uniformly from each video and used the OpenAI CLIP ViT-Large/14 model family. A Haar cascade detected faces, and the largest detected face was expanded by 50 pixels on each side before classification. Frames without a detected face received missing scores. Eleven lowercase class labels were passed directly to the text encoder without a sentence template: anger, disgust, fear, happiness, neutral, sadness, surprise, contempt, anxiety, helplessness, and disappointment. Burned-in subtitles were not masked and could contribute when they fell inside the padded face crop.

Scores were required to lie in $[0, 1]$. A complete row was retained when its sum was positive, finite, and within 10^{-6} of one, then divided by that sum in the fixed channel order. Values were not truncated and zero replacement was disabled. The main analysis retained complete rows. The sensitivity analysis interpolated internal gaps of at most two frames within a segment. The scoring-time package release and exact checkpoint revision were not archived, so exact frame rescoring cannot be guaranteed; all analyses use the retained scores.

The comparison used eight statistics. Median level, interquartile range of levels, interquartile range of observation-to-observation changes, lag-1 autocorrelation, entropy of monotonic run lengths, and normalized spectral entropy were calculated for each channel. Effective rank and total variance described all channels jointly. Each statistic was evaluated on both bounded scores and log-ratio coordinates.

For every statistic and representation, disagreement between simulated and real clip distributions was measured by the absolute difference between medians and the one-dimensional Wasserstein distance. Both were standardized by the spread of the real values, using the interquartile range when available, followed by 1.4826 times the median absolute deviation, the standard deviation, or one. The larger standardized distance was retained. The composite averaged the eight statistics within each representation and weighted the two

representations equally.

Clips were divided into five deterministic folds within MAFW category and length order, leaving 20 test clips per fold. The coordinate center, loading directions, loading scales, and covariance of clip baselines were estimated from training clips only. The first three eigenvectors of the within-clip covariance supplied the loading directions. Their orientation and scale were fixed deterministically. The baseline covariance was shrunk halfway toward its diagonal and eigenvalues were floored at 10^{-8}.

Within each fold and configuration, the search crossed natural periods $\{8, 12, 24\}$, damping ratios $\{0.05, 0.20, 0.50\}$, and observation scales $\kappa \in \{0.75, 1.00, 1.25\}$. Three paired training datasets evaluated each of the 27 candidates. Selection minimized the equally weighted representation-level discrepancy, with deterministic tie-breaking. All folds selected a 12-observation period, damping ratio 0.50, and $\kappa = 1$ for the clip baseline + scale configuration.

Each selected configuration generated 100 datasets per test fold, matching the held-out observation indices and segment structure. The comparison concerns distributions of summary statistics across clips, rather than frame-level reconstruction. Uncertainty used 2,000 paired bootstrap resamples of the 20 clips within each fold. The eight configurations are the factorial combinations of clip baseline, clip scale, and brief activity transition.

B.2 Study 2 Simulation Designs

For each clip, LOMM sets or draws the starting state and acceleration inputs according to the configuration, advances each latent dimension, applies the activity schedule, and constructs the observed indicators. The primary, shorter-series, and extended factorial designs use continuous indicators. All clips share the same indicator assignments and the same nominal loadings and residual variances; each clip's loadings and residual variances are perturbed by small random amounts. The one-at-a-time sensitivity conditions use fixed equal measurement parameters except for the stated change.

In non-switching scenarios, one dimension remains dominant for a whole clip and the dominant dimension rotates across clips. Switching scenarios sample dwell intervals and change the dominant dimension over time. Families A through D use stable dynamics. Families E and F use positive velocity feedback and test recovery under finite-horizon amplification.

The primary $T = 100$ design contains 21,600 datasets. It crosses six scenario families, $m \in \{2, 3\}$ dimensions, $N \in \{50, 100\}$ clips, loadings $\{0.40, 0.60, 0.80\}$, residual standard deviations $\{0.125, 0.25, 0.50\}$, four indicators per dimension, and 100 paired replications. The shorter-series design repeats the same 21,600 datasets

Table B1: The six Study 2 scenario families. Dwell values are fractions of the number of observations per clip.

Code	Family	Switching	Active / background gain	Dwell fraction	Dynamic rule
A	Weak expression, one dominant dimension	No	0.35 / 0.05	1.00 / 1.00	Stable, low input scale
B	Strong expression, one dominant dimension	No	1.00 / 0.08	1.00 / 1.00	Stable, standard input scale
C	Strong expression, switching dominant dimension	Yes	1.00 / 0.08	0.20 / 0.45	Stable, standard input scale
D	Strong expression, rapid switching	Yes	1.25 / 0.08	0.03 / 0.10	Stable, high input scale
E	Amplifying dynamics, one dominant dimension	No	1.00 / 0.08	1.00 / 1.00	Positive velocity feedback
F	Amplifying dynamics, switching dominant dimension	Yes	1.10 / 0.10	0.12 / 0.30	Positive velocity feedback

Table B2: One-at-a-time sensitivity conditions. Each changes one feature of the reference condition.

Sensitivity condition	Specification
Independent starting states	Stationary zero-mean starts for stable dimensions; bounded independent starts for amplifying dimensions
Gradual activity transitions	A five-observation transition replaces each abrupt switch
Cross-loadings	Small normal cross-loadings, truncated to [-0.10, 0.10]
Residual equicorrelation	Correlation 0.10 between every residual pair, including pairs from different dimensions
Correlated inputs	Acceleration-input correlation 0.15 between dimensions
Bounded scores	Direct softmax of the p indicators with tau = 1, analyzed as raw scores or CLR components

with $T = 25$, $\Delta = 0.4$, and duration 9.6. Every method receives the same dataset within each condition and replication.

The one-at-a-time sensitivity analyses fix $N = 100$, $T = 100$, loading 0.60, residual standard deviation 0.25, and four indicators per dimension (the reference condition). They cross all six families, two dimensionalities, and 50 paired replications while changing one feature at a time.

The between-clip analysis uses 80 paired datasets from stable families A through D, $m \in \{2, 3\}$, and 10 replications. Each dataset has $N = 100$, $T = 100$, four indicators per dimension, loading 0.60, residual standard deviation 0.25, and independent stationary starts. Its baseline varies within the loading space, and its scale varies across clips.

The extended factorial simulation evaluates DynEGA on 518,400 datasets. It crosses $N \in \{50, 100\}$, $T \in \{100, 300\}$, $m \in \{2, 3, 4\}$, $k \in \{4, 6\}$, three loading levels, three residual-error levels, six scenarios, and 400 replications. The $T = 100$ conditions use $\Delta = 0.4$ and the $T = 300$ conditions use $\Delta = 0.25$ while holding per-step input variance fixed. Their difference therefore combines the number of observations, the observation interval, the physical duration, and the discrete input specification.

The public lomm_observe() function implements the observation step and records the configuration, seeds, and hashes needed for reproduction. Study 2 uses the benchmark generator documented in the analysis code, which returns continuous indicators for the primary designs and applies the direct-softmax and CLR

transformation for the bounded-score sensitivity condition.

B.3 Method Implementations

DynEGA estimates first derivatives from time-delay embeddings, constructs an EBICglasso partial-correlation network, and groups its positive edges (Boker et al., 2010; H. Golino et al., 2020; H. Golino et al., 2022; H. F. Golino & Epskamp, 2017). Video identity prevents embedding windows from crossing clip boundaries. An explicit search selects the embedding dimension by the Total Entropy Fit Index, with shorter embeddings breaking ties. Candidate dimensions are $\{5, 10, 15, 25, 50\}$ for $T = 100$ and $\{5, 6, 10, 12\}$ for $T = 25$. EGAnet 2.3.0 uses GLLA embedding parameters tau = 1 and delta = 1, first derivatives, automatic correlations, pairwise missing-data handling, and the glasso model. The derivative scale does not affect the correlation matrix because conversion from observation units to physical time multiplies every derivative by the same positive constant.

Static EGA applies EBICglasso to the contemporaneous correlation matrix of the stacked indicator levels and then uses the same network-processing and community-detection rules as DynEGA. It ignores the observation order. This makes it a benchmark that shows how much of the grouping is recoverable without temporal information, and a computational benchmark for the temporal procedures.

GraphicalVAR uses mlGraphicalVAR with clip identity as the grouping variable, within-clip centering, variable standardization, and gamma 0.5 (Epskamp et al., 2018; Epskamp, 2024). Lagged pairs never cross clip boundaries. The grouping uses the returned fixedPCC contemporaneous residual partial-correlation matrix. The diagonal is removed and the matrix is treated as an undirected weighted graph.

GIMME fits each standardized clip separately with unified structural equation modeling and vector autoregression (Gates & Molenaar, 2012; Lane et al., 2019). Standardized residual covariance matrices from successful fits are aligned by variable name, averaged across clips, and symmetrized. The resulting graph is a residual-covariance graph. Unequal residual variances can therefore influence its weights. This conversion was built for the present comparison and differs from typical idiographic use.

For every method, negative graph weights are set to zero. If no positive edge remains, absolute values of the original off-diagonal weights are used; only an all-zero matrix produces singleton communities. The integrated outputs do not record the frequency of this fallback. Louvain at resolution 1.0 is primary (Blondel et al., 2008). Leiden and Walktrap are applied to the same fitted network as sensitivity analyses (Pons & Latapy, 2005; Traag et al., 2019). A deterministic offset from the dataset seed initializes each method fit.

GraphicalVAR and GIMME were omitted from the 518,400-dataset extended factorial simulation because the

full design was computationally impractical. Both were included in the primary and shorter-series designs. GraphicalVAR was also included in the one-at-a-time sensitivity and between-clip analyses. GIMME was included in the between-clip analysis and excluded from the one-at-a-time sensitivity analyses.

B.4 Outcomes, Uncertainty, and Computing

The valid-output rate records whether a procedure returned a network that could be grouped. The conditional correct-dimension rate records correct dimensionality among valid outputs. The primary outcome, the overall correct-dimension recovery rate, requires both events, so errors and timeouts remain in its denominator.

Adjusted Rand index and variation of information compare the full estimated and prespecified partitions among valid outputs. Assignment accuracy matches estimated groups to dimensions to maximize correct indicator assignments. Every indicator remains in the denominator, and indicators in unmatched groups count as incorrect.

Trajectory-summary diagnostics are constructed after grouping. Indicators are standardized and each estimated group is summarized by its first principal component, with a row mean used when a component cannot be computed. Correlation pairs each prespecified dimension with the estimated summary having the largest absolute correlation. NRMSE uses one-to-one matching after sign reversal when needed. An unmatched data-generating dimension receives the penalty 2. All-attempt failure-adjusted versions assign correlation 0 and NRMSE 2 when no valid network output exists.

Uncertainty uses 2,000 bootstrap resamples of whole datasets, stratified by condition. Monte Carlo standard errors use delete-one-dataset jackknifing. The three community-detection algorithms reuse the same fitted structure and therefore assess the grouping step rather than estimator variability.

Analyses used R 4.5.1 on Rocky Linux 8.8 with dual Intel Xeon Silver 4310 processors, 48 logical threads, and 125 GiB RAM. Key versions were EGAnet 2.3.0, graphicalVAR 0.3.4, gimme 10.0, igraph 2.2.1, qgraph 1.9.8, psych 2.5.6, lavaan 0.6-20, dplyr 1.1.4, and ggplot2 4.0.1. GraphicalVAR and GIMME used a 900-second limit per fit in the primary and shorter designs.

Runtime is elapsed wall-clock time for attempts returning a valid network output. It includes structure estimation, network extraction, and community detection. One fitted structure is reused for Louvain, Leiden, and Walktrap, so feasibility counts unique fits and accuracy counts fit-and-algorithm results. Runtime values are specific to this implementation and machine.

Appendix C: Supplementary Results

C.1 Full Results of the Simulated-versus-Real Comparison

The complete comparison of all eight configurations is reported below for both analyses. The tables retain the bootstrap means, estimated biases, basic reverse-percentile intervals, and percentile intervals so that bootstrap bias can be inspected directly. These quantities describe the clip-resampling distribution; they are not treated as uncertainty intervals around the plug-in discrepancies. A second table then separates the clip baseline + scale configuration into its eight component statistics. It shows discrepancies that the composite mean obscures, including the remaining differences in the interquartile range of levels and in the interquartile range of observation-to-observation changes.

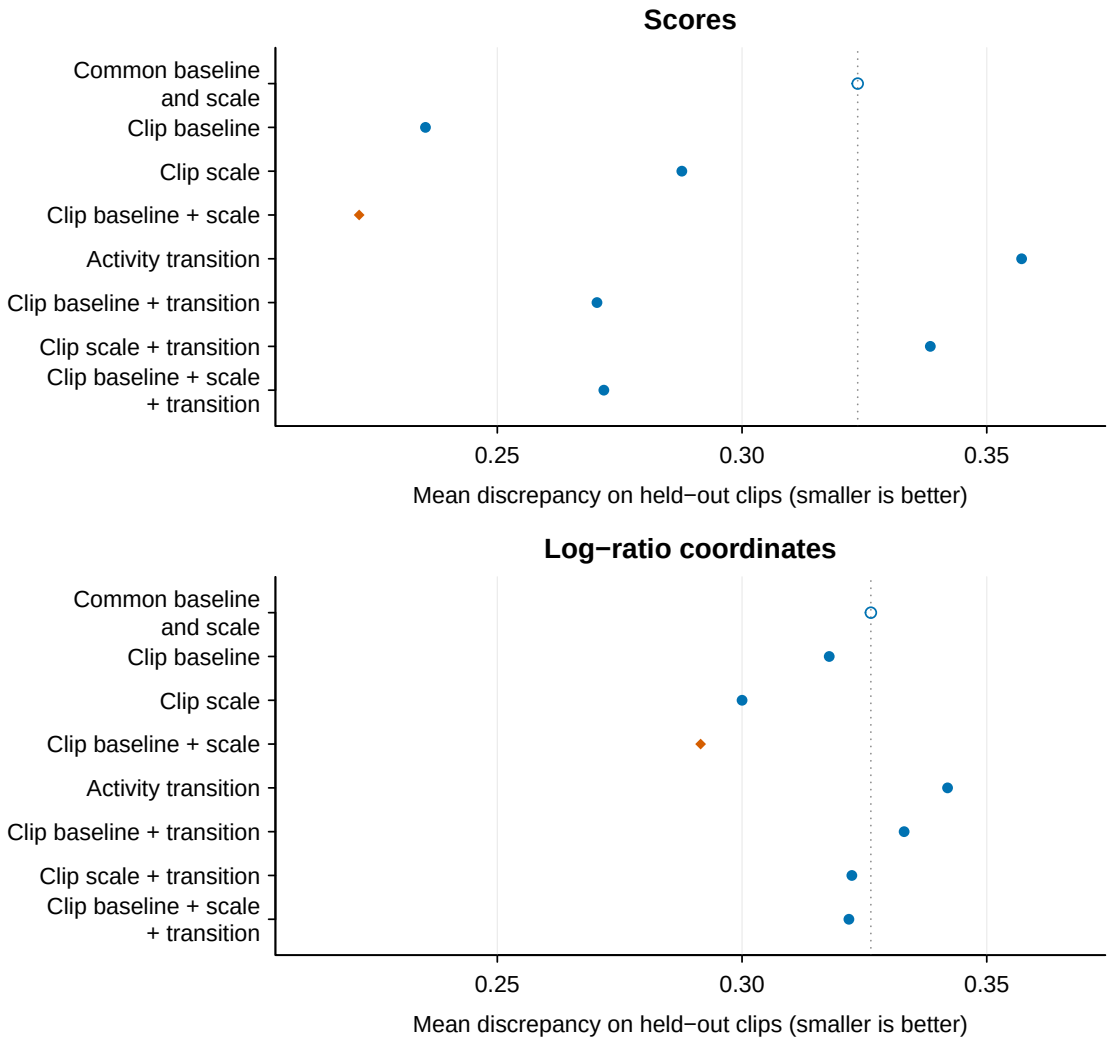


Figure C1: Discrepancy between simulated and real series for all eight configurations, shown for bounded scores and log-ratio coordinates. Smaller values indicate closer agreement. The main text shows the score panel only; configuration selection weighted both representations equally.

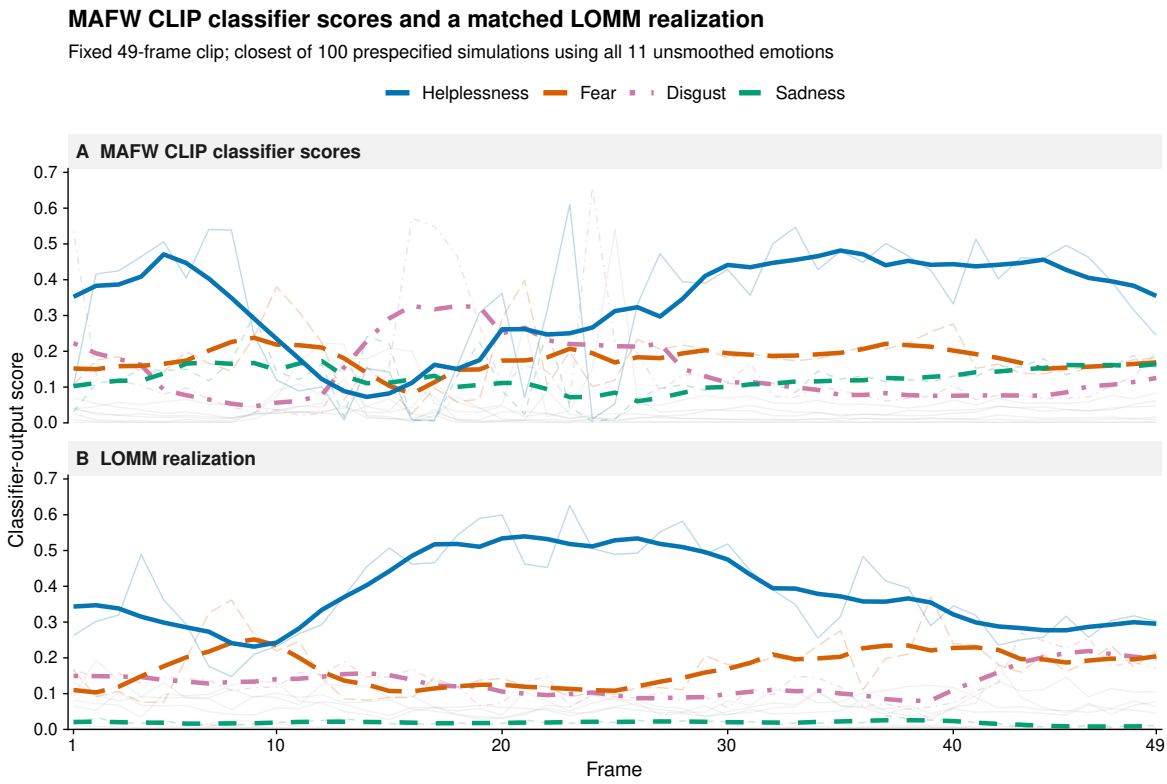


Figure C2: Real MAFW classifier scores and the closest of 100 LOMM realizations generated for the same 49-observation clip with the clip baseline + scale configuration. The selected realization had a score RMSE of 0.105 and an observation-to-observation-change RMSE of 0.083. Because the realization was selected after generation, this is a best-case illustration; the cross-fitted comparison provides the aggregate evidence.

Table C1: Discrepancy between simulated and real score series for the eight configurations, complete frames analysis. Each estimate averages eight summary statistics within a representation across five equally weighted folds, 100 held-out video clips, and 100 simulated datasets per fold and configuration. Smaller values indicate closer agreement with the real scores. Bootstrap bias is the bootstrap mean minus the estimate. Basic reverse-percentile and percentile intervals are reported as diagnostics rather than as uncertainty intervals for individual configurations. They are conditional on the settings selected within each training fold.

Representation	Configuration	Mean	MCSE	Bootstrap mean	Bias	Basic 95% interval	Percentile 95% interval
Scores	Common baseline-and-scale configuration	0.3236	0.0007	0.3455	0.0219	[0.2691, 0.3322]	[0.3151, 0.3782]
Scores	Clip baseline	0.2353	0.0009	0.2723	0.0370	[0.1686, 0.2268]	[0.2439, 0.3020]
Scores	Clip scale	0.2877	0.0010	0.3233	0.0356	[0.2197, 0.2803]	[0.2951, 0.3557]
Scores	Clip baseline + scale	0.2218	0.0013	0.2701	0.0484	[0.1433, 0.1992]	[0.2444, 0.3002]
Scores	Activity transition	0.3571	0.0012	0.3830	0.0259	[0.2898, 0.3674]	[0.3468, 0.4245]
Scores	Clip baseline + activity transition	0.2704	0.0013	0.3090	0.0387	[0.1958, 0.2627]	[0.2780, 0.3449]
Scores	Clip scale + activity transition	0.3385	0.0013	0.3708	0.0324	[0.2641, 0.3424]	[0.3345, 0.4128]
Scores	Clip baseline + scale + activity transition	0.2718	0.0014	0.3149	0.0431	[0.1891, 0.2618]	[0.2817, 0.3545]
Log ratio	Common baseline-and-scale configuration	0.3263	0.0011	0.3538	0.0275	[0.2582, 0.3346]	[0.3180, 0.3944]
Log ratio	Clip baseline	0.3178	0.0011	0.3476	0.0298	[0.2478, 0.3241]	[0.3115, 0.3878]
Log ratio	Clip scale	0.3000	0.0023	0.3453	0.0453	[0.2180, 0.2851]	[0.3149, 0.3821]
Log ratio	Clip baseline + scale	0.2915	0.0023	0.3392	0.0476	[0.2065, 0.2744]	[0.3087, 0.3766]
Log ratio	Activity transition	0.3420	0.0013	0.3778	0.0358	[0.2604, 0.3447]	[0.3393, 0.4236]
Log ratio	Clip baseline + activity transition	0.3331	0.0013	0.3713	0.0382	[0.2490, 0.3327]	[0.3335, 0.4172]
Log ratio	Clip scale + activity transition	0.3224	0.0018	0.3695	0.0470	[0.2288, 0.3134]	[0.3315, 0.4160]
Log ratio	Clip baseline + scale + activity transition	0.3218	0.0019	0.3699	0.0481	[0.2294, 0.3104]	[0.3332, 0.4143]

Table C2: Discrepancy between simulated and real score series for the eight configurations, gap interpolated analysis. Each estimate averages eight summary statistics within a representation across five equally weighted folds, 100 held-out video clips, and 100 simulated datasets per fold and configuration. Smaller values indicate closer agreement with the real scores. Bootstrap bias is the bootstrap mean minus the estimate. Basic reverse-percentile and percentile intervals are reported as diagnostics rather than as uncertainty intervals for individual configurations. They are conditional on the settings selected within each training fold.

Representation	Configuration	Mean	MCSE	Bootstrap mean	Bias	Basic 95% interval	Percentile 95% interval
Scores	Common baseline-and-scale configuration	0.3164	0.0007	0.3389	0.0226	[0.2614, 0.3231]	[0.3097, 0.3714]
Scores	Clip baseline	0.2290	0.0009	0.2660	0.0369	[0.1618, 0.2183]	[0.2398, 0.2963]
Scores	Clip scale	0.2803	0.0010	0.3168	0.0366	[0.2103, 0.2713]	[0.2892, 0.3502]
Scores	Clip baseline + scale	0.2152	0.0012	0.2639	0.0487	[0.1366, 0.1909]	[0.2395, 0.2939]
Scores	Activity transition	0.3647	0.0012	0.3886	0.0240	[0.2996, 0.3775]	[0.3518, 0.4297]
Scores	Clip baseline + activity transition	0.2797	0.0014	0.3151	0.0353	[0.2075, 0.2763]	[0.2832, 0.3520]
Scores	Clip scale + activity transition	0.3461	0.0014	0.3768	0.0307	[0.2733, 0.3526]	[0.3395, 0.4188]
Scores	Clip baseline + scale + activity transition	0.2819	0.0015	0.3222	0.0403	[0.2016, 0.2752]	[0.2887, 0.3623]
Log ratio	Common baseline-and-scale configuration	0.3209	0.0011	0.3485	0.0276	[0.2531, 0.3296]	[0.3123, 0.3888]
Log ratio	Clip baseline	0.3124	0.0011	0.3424	0.0300	[0.2433, 0.3188]	[0.3061, 0.3815]
Log ratio	Clip scale	0.2954	0.0023	0.3404	0.0450	[0.2145, 0.2819]	[0.3089, 0.3763]
Log ratio	Clip baseline + scale	0.2869	0.0023	0.3342	0.0474	[0.2036, 0.2710]	[0.3027, 0.3701]
Log ratio	Activity transition	0.3528	0.0015	0.3864	0.0335	[0.2725, 0.3585]	[0.3471, 0.4331]
Log ratio	Clip baseline + activity transition	0.3439	0.0015	0.3799	0.0360	[0.2617, 0.3466]	[0.3413, 0.4261]
Log ratio	Clip scale + activity transition	0.3337	0.0019	0.3782	0.0444	[0.2418, 0.3280]	[0.3395, 0.4257]
Log ratio	Clip baseline + scale + activity transition	0.3360	0.0020	0.3812	0.0452	[0.2432, 0.3288]	[0.3431, 0.4287]

Table C3: Discrepancy for each summary statistic under the clip baseline + scale configuration, complete frames analysis. Results are shown for both representations; smaller values indicate closer agreement with the real scores. For the six single-channel statistics, a unit is one clip-channel summary; for effective rank and total variance, a unit is one clip-level summary. Unit columns report the range across folds and simulation repetitions. The bootstrap means, bias estimates, and 95% intervals are diagnostics rather than uncertainty intervals for the individual discrepancies. They are conditional on the settings selected within each fold.

Representation	Metric	Mean	MCSE	Bias	Basic 95% interval	Percentile 95% interval	Empirical units/fold	Simulated units/fold
Scores	Level median	0.1434	0.0020	0.0379	[0.0657, 0.1364]	[0.1503, 0.2210]	220	220
Scores	Level IQR	0.1456	0.0020	0.0387	[0.0748, 0.1331]	[0.1581, 0.2163]	220	220
Scores	First-difference IQR	0.1846	0.0024	0.0244	[0.1235, 0.1923]	[0.1768, 0.2456]	220	220
Scores	Lag-1 autocorrelation	0.2143	0.0016	0.0241	[0.1221, 0.2419]	[0.1867, 0.3064]	220	220
Scores	Run-length entropy	0.1160	0.0018	0.0396	[0.0467, 0.1029]	[0.1290, 0.1852]	220	220
Scores	Spectral entropy	0.2978	0.0031	0.0139	[0.2122, 0.3513]	[0.2444, 0.3835]	209–220	209–220
Scores	Effective rank	0.3227	0.0033	0.0745	[0.1595, 0.3252]	[0.3202, 0.4859]	20	20
Scores	Total variance	0.3499	0.0058	0.1337	[0.0726, 0.3002]	[0.3995, 0.6271]	20	20
Log ratio	Level median	0.0701	0.0008	0.0250	[0.0322, 0.0559]	[0.0843, 0.1081]	220	220
Log ratio	Level IQR	0.2969	0.0054	0.0497	[0.1777, 0.3025]	[0.2913, 0.4161]	220	220
Log ratio	First-difference IQR	0.4423	0.0073	0.0340	[0.3177, 0.4903]	[0.3943, 0.5669]	220	220
Log ratio	Lag-1 autocorrelation	0.2903	0.0021	0.0206	[0.1778, 0.3465]	[0.2342, 0.4028]	220	220
Log ratio	Run-length entropy	0.1323	0.0020	0.0343	[0.0608, 0.1305]	[0.1340, 0.2037]	220	220
Log ratio	Spectral entropy	0.3979	0.0035	0.0083	[0.3031, 0.4734]	[0.3224, 0.4927]	209–220	209–220
Log ratio	Effective rank	0.3455	0.0024	0.0588	[0.1977, 0.3672]	[0.3237, 0.4932]	20	20
Log ratio	Total variance	0.3570	0.0068	0.1505	[0.1074, 0.2706]	[0.4435, 0.6067]	20	20

Table C4: Discrepancy for each summary statistic under the clip baseline + scale configuration, gap interpolated analysis. Results are shown for both representations; smaller values indicate closer agreement with the real scores. For the six single-channel statistics, a unit is one clip-channel summary; for effective rank and total variance, a unit is one clip-level summary. Unit columns report the range across folds and simulation repetitions. The bootstrap means, bias estimates, and 95% intervals are diagnostics rather than uncertainty intervals for the individual discrepancies. They are conditional on the settings selected within each fold.

Representation	Metric	Mean	MCSE	Bias	Basic 95% interval	Percentile 95% interval	Empirical units/fold	Simulated units/fold
Scores	Level median	0.1431	0.0020	0.0377	[0.0651, 0.1366]	[0.1495, 0.2210]	220	220
Scores	Level IQR	0.1417	0.0020	0.0397	[0.0713, 0.1281]	[0.1554, 0.2122]	220	220
Scores	First-difference IQR	0.1879	0.0025	0.0232	[0.1291, 0.1966]	[0.1792, 0.2467]	220	220
Scores	Lag-1 autocorrelation	0.1937	0.0016	0.0236	[0.1061, 0.2183]	[0.1691, 0.2813]	220	220
Scores	Run-length entropy	0.1179	0.0018	0.0354	[0.0509, 0.1096]	[0.1262, 0.1849]	220	220
Scores	Spectral entropy	0.2724	0.0027	0.0187	[0.1905, 0.3075]	[0.2374, 0.3543]	220	220
Scores	Effective rank	0.3225	0.0033	0.0747	[0.1601, 0.3244]	[0.3205, 0.4848]	20	20
Scores	Total variance	0.3426	0.0058	0.1362	[0.0593, 0.2877]	[0.3975, 0.6259]	20	20
Log ratio	Level median	0.0687	0.0008	0.0258	[0.0301, 0.0536]	[0.0839, 0.1073]	220	220
Log ratio	Level IQR	0.3032	0.0054	0.0462	[0.1867, 0.3120]	[0.2943, 0.4197]	220	220
Log ratio	First-difference IQR	0.4639	0.0075	0.0321	[0.3462, 0.5079]	[0.4199, 0.5816]	220	220
Log ratio	Lag-1 autocorrelation	0.2645	0.0019	0.0234	[0.1505, 0.3161]	[0.2129, 0.3786]	220	220
Log ratio	Run-length entropy	0.1280	0.0021	0.0334	[0.0528, 0.1272]	[0.1288, 0.2032]	220	220
Log ratio	Spectral entropy	0.3674	0.0033	0.0095	[0.2796, 0.4355]	[0.2993, 0.4553]	220	220
Log ratio	Effective rank	0.3452	0.0024	0.0584	[0.1971, 0.3662]	[0.3242, 0.4932]	20	20
Log ratio	Total variance	0.3541	0.0068	0.1502	[0.1100, 0.2658]	[0.4424, 0.5982]	20	20

C.2 Grouping and Trajectory Diagnostics

This appendix reports two types of post-estimation diagnostic. Grouping diagnostics evaluate recovered indicator groupings among valid network outputs. Trajectory-summary diagnostics compare summaries constructed from recovered groups with the activity-scaled latent trajectories; the trajectories are not direct latent-state estimates produced by the methods.

Table C5: Louvain grouping diagnostics for the matched-method simulation with $T = 100$. Each diagnostic uses the datasets satisfying its stated conditioning rule. Monte Carlo standard errors are computed across simulated datasets, and 95% intervals resample whole datasets, stratified by condition.

Method	Diagnostic	Estimate	MCSE	95% interval	Datasets	Valid outputs	Correct-dimensional outputs
DynEGA	Signed dimension error	0.166	0.0057	[0.154, 0.177]	21600	21600	20282
DynEGA	Absolute dimension error	0.168	0.0057	[0.157, 0.180]	21600	21600	20282
DynEGA	Adjusted Rand index	0.935	0.0015	[0.932, 0.938]	21600	21600	20282
DynEGA	Variation of information	0.095	0.0023	[0.091, 0.100]	21600	21600	20282
DynEGA	Assignment accuracy given valid network output	0.965	0.0009	[0.963, 0.966]	21600	21600	20282
GraphicalVAR	Signed dimension error	0.979	0.0171	[0.947, 1.011]	20329	20329	16784
GraphicalVAR	Absolute dimension error	0.979	0.0171	[0.945, 1.012]	20329	20329	16784
GraphicalVAR	Adjusted Rand index	0.867	0.0022	[0.863, 0.872]	20329	20329	16784
GraphicalVAR	Variation of information	0.183	0.0031	[0.177, 0.189]	20329	20329	16784
GraphicalVAR	Assignment accuracy given valid network output	0.902	0.0016	[0.899, 0.906]	20329	20329	16784
GIMME	Signed dimension error	0.319	0.0110	[0.298, 0.341]	4846	4846	3795
GIMME	Absolute dimension error	0.319	0.0110	[0.298, 0.341]	4846	4846	3795
GIMME	Adjusted Rand index	0.733	0.0057	[0.722, 0.744]	4846	4846	3795
GIMME	Variation of information	0.337	0.0073	[0.323, 0.351]	4846	4846	3795
GIMME	Assignment accuracy given valid network output	0.877	0.0027	[0.872, 0.882]	4846	4846	3795
Static EGA	Signed dimension error	0.799	0.0159	[0.770, 0.829]	21526	21526	19093
Static EGA	Absolute dimension error	0.799	0.0159	[0.767, 0.829]	21526	21526	19093
Static EGA	Adjusted Rand index	0.894	0.0021	[0.889, 0.898]	21526	21526	19093
Static EGA	Variation of information	0.147	0.0029	[0.142, 0.153]	21526	21526	19093
Static EGA	Assignment accuracy given valid network output	0.922	0.0015	[0.919, 0.925]	21526	21526	19093

Table C6: Louvain grouping diagnostics for the matched-method simulation with $T = 25$. Each diagnostic uses the datasets satisfying its stated conditioning rule. Monte Carlo standard errors are computed across simulated datasets, and 95% intervals resample whole datasets, stratified by condition.

Method	Diagnostic	Estimate	MCSE	95% interval	Datasets	Valid outputs	Correct-dimensional outputs
DynEGA	Signed dimension error	0.492	0.0102	[0.471, 0.512]	21600	21600	18636
DynEGA	Absolute dimension error	0.494	0.0102	[0.474, 0.515]	21600	21600	18636
DynEGA	Adjusted Rand index	0.902	0.0018	[0.899, 0.906]	21600	21600	18636
DynEGA	Variation of information	0.137	0.0025	[0.132, 0.143]	21600	21600	18636
DynEGA	Assignment accuracy given valid network output	0.935	0.0012	[0.933, 0.938]	21600	21600	18636
GraphicalVAR	Signed dimension error	1.048	0.0154	[1.017, 1.076]	21579	21579	16641
GraphicalVAR	Absolute dimension error	1.048	0.0154	[1.016, 1.080]	21579	21579	16641
GraphicalVAR	Adjusted Rand index	0.859	0.0020	[0.855, 0.863]	21579	21579	16641
GraphicalVAR	Variation of information	0.200	0.0028	[0.195, 0.206]	21579	21579	16641
GraphicalVAR	Assignment accuracy given valid network output	0.893	0.0015	[0.890, 0.896]	21579	21579	16641
Static EGA	Signed dimension error	0.576	0.0136	[0.551, 0.603]	21541	21541	19721
Static EGA	Absolute dimension error	0.576	0.0136	[0.550, 0.603]	21541	21541	19721
Static EGA	Adjusted Rand index	0.922	0.0018	[0.919, 0.926]	21541	21541	19721
Static EGA	Variation of information	0.108	0.0025	[0.103, 0.113]	21541	21541	19721
Static EGA	Assignment accuracy given valid network output	0.943	0.0013	[0.940, 0.945]	21541	21541	19721

Table C7: Louvain trajectory-summary diagnostics for the matched-method simulation with $T = 100$. Correct-dimensional rows include valid outputs that recovered the correct number of dimensions. All-attempt failure-adjusted rows assign correlation 0 and NRMSE 2 when no valid network output was returned. These are post-estimation summaries of recovered groups; higher correlation and lower NRMSE indicate closer alignment with the activity-scaled latent trajectories.

Method	Diagnostic	Estimate	MCSE	95% interval	Datasets	Valid	Correct dimension
DynEGA	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory correlation	0.549	0.0014	[0.546, 0.552]	21600	21600	20282
DynEGA	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory NRMSE	1.435	0.0013	[1.432, 1.438]	21600	21600	20282
GraphicalVAR	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory correlation	0.668	0.0020	[0.664, 0.671]	21600	20329	16784
GraphicalVAR	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory NRMSE	0.753	0.0036	[0.746, 0.760]	21600	20329	16784
GIMME	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory correlation	0.132	0.0019	[0.129, 0.136]	21600	4846	3795
GIMME	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory NRMSE	1.749	0.0034	[1.742, 1.756]	21600	4846	3795
Static EGA	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory correlation	0.727	0.0017	[0.723, 0.730]	21600	21526	19093
Static EGA	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory NRMSE	0.641	0.0031	[0.635, 0.647]	21600	21526	19093
DynEGA	Trajectory correlation (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.574	0.0013	[0.572, 0.577]	20282	21600	20282
DynEGA	Trajectory NRMSE (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	1.418	0.0014	[1.416, 1.421]	20282	21600	20282
GraphicalVAR	Trajectory correlation (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.791	0.0014	[0.789, 0.794]	16784	20329	16784
GraphicalVAR	Trajectory NRMSE (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.568	0.0031	[0.562, 0.574]	16784	20329	16784
GIMME	Trajectory correlation (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.606	0.0034	[0.600, 0.613]	3795	4846	3795
GIMME	Trajectory NRMSE (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.898	0.0050	[0.888, 0.907]	3795	4846	3795
Static EGA	Trajectory correlation (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.787	0.0014	[0.784, 0.789]	19093	21526	19093
Static EGA	Trajectory NRMSE (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.563	0.0031	[0.557, 0.569]	19093	21526	19093

Table C8: Louvain trajectory-summary diagnostics for the matched-method simulation with $T = 25$. Correct-dimensional rows include valid outputs that recovered the correct number of dimensions. All-attempt failure-adjusted rows assign correlation 0 and NRMSE 2 when no valid network output was returned. These are post-estimation summaries of recovered groups; higher correlation and lower NRMSE indicate closer alignment with the activity-scaled latent trajectories.

Method	Diagnostic	Estimate	MCSE	95% interval	Datasets	Valid	Correct dimension
DynEGA	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory correlation	0.611	0.0011	[0.608, 0.613]	21600	21600	18636
DynEGA	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory NRMSE	1.412	0.0012	[1.409, 1.414]	21600	21600	18636
GraphicalVAR	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory correlation	0.799	0.0012	[0.796, 0.801]	21600	21579	16641
GraphicalVAR	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory NRMSE	0.587	0.0023	[0.582, 0.591]	21600	21579	16641
GIMME	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory correlation	0.000	0.0000	[0.000, 0.000]	21600	0	0
GIMME	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory NRMSE	2.000	0.0000	[2.000, 2.000]	21600	0	0
Static EGA	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory correlation	0.801	0.0012	[0.799, 0.803]	21600	21541	19721
Static EGA	All-attempt failure-adjusted trajectory NRMSE	0.595	0.0024	[0.591, 0.600]	21600	21541	19721
DynEGA	Trajectory correlation (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.654	0.0010	[0.652, 0.655]	18636	21600	18636
DynEGA	Trajectory NRMSE (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	1.382	0.0013	[1.380, 1.385]	18636	21600	18636
GraphicalVAR	Trajectory correlation (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.871	0.0008	[0.870, 0.873]	16641	21579	16641
GraphicalVAR	Trajectory NRMSE (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.466	0.0022	[0.461, 0.470]	16641	21579	16641
Static EGA	Trajectory correlation (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.836	0.0009	[0.834, 0.838]	19721	21541	19721
Static EGA	Trajectory NRMSE (correct-dimensional valid network outputs)	0.548	0.0023	[0.544, 0.553]	19721	21541	19721

C.3 One-at-a-Time Sensitivity Analyses and Scenario Parameters

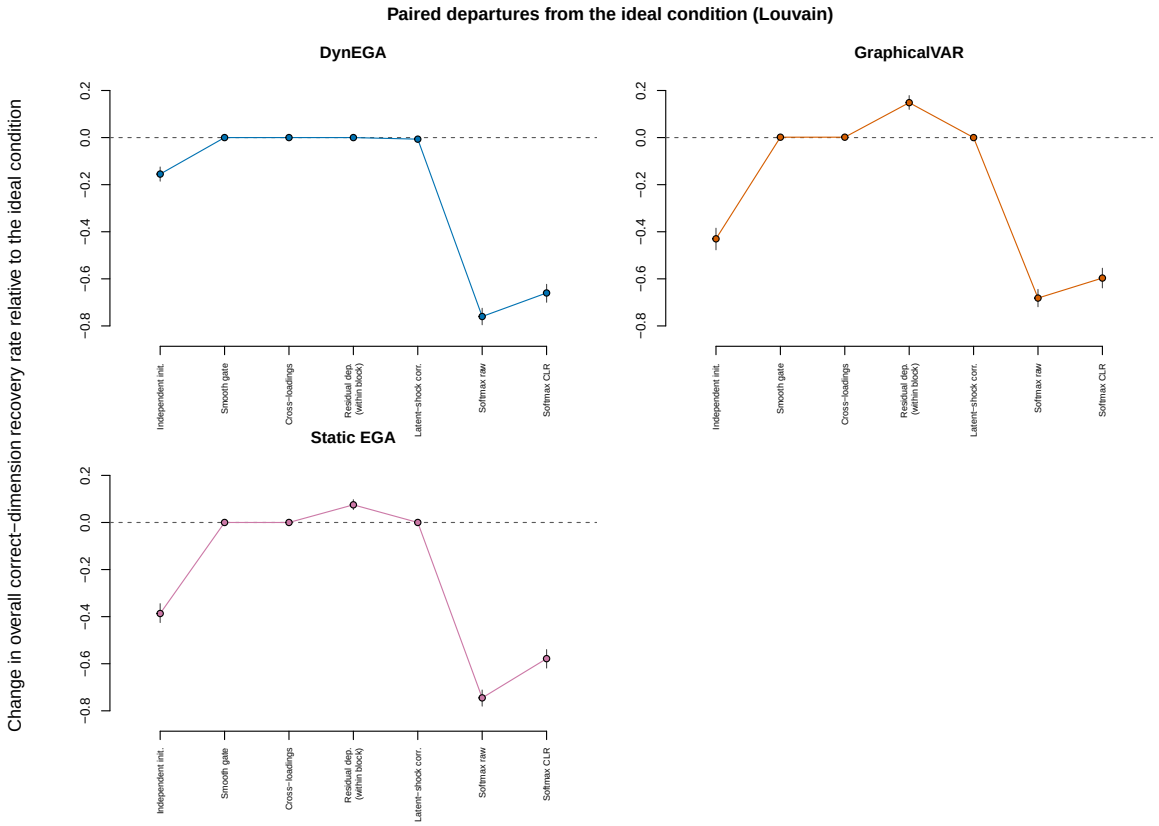


Figure C3: Paired change in overall correct-dimension recovery under each one-at-a-time sensitivity condition. Negative values indicate lower recovery than in the reference condition. Error bars are 95% bootstrap intervals from resampling whole datasets.

The scenario families use the numeric settings below. The displayed σ_q vectors are the per-step acceleration-input standard deviations used in the analyses. The primary simulation design with 100 observations uses $\Delta = 0.4$. Conditions with 300 observations occur only in the extended factorial simulation and use $\Delta = 0.25$, so these conditions differ in the number of observations, the interval between them, the total time spanned, and discrete acceleration-input specification.

Codes A–D use asymptotically stable feedback. Codes E–F use $\eta_f < 0$ and $\zeta_f > 0$, which produces oscillatory finite-horizon amplification. Their interpretation is restricted to the stated observation horizons. The simulated-versus-real comparison uses stable negative-ζ dynamics and is analyzed separately. All oscillatory factors satisfy the cadence restriction $0 < \omega_f < \pi/\Delta$ at the observation intervals used here.

Table C9: Generator-only amplitude diagnostics for the finite-horizon amplification families with $N = 50$, four indicators per dimension, loading 0.60, residual standard deviation 0.25, and 25 replications. The final-tenth energy fraction is the proportion of squared activity-scaled latent signal occurring in the last 10% of observations, averaged across clips within a panel and then summarized across replications.

Scenario	Dimensions	T	H	Median max $\lvert\tilde{x}\rvert$	95th percentile max $\lvert\tilde{x}\rvert$	Median observed IQR	Final-tenth energy fraction
Ranked finite-horizon amplification	2	100	39.60	55.9	61.5	3.47	0.316
Ranked finite-horizon amplification	2	300	74.75	329.4	376.9	7.46	0.338
Ranked finite-horizon amplification	3	100	39.60	62.6	73.0	1.90	0.368
Ranked finite-horizon amplification	3	300	74.75	430.3	478.6	4.58	0.428
Ranked finite-horizon amplification	4	100	39.60	85.6	102.7	1.57	0.404
Ranked finite-horizon amplification	4	300	74.75	994.9	1092.7	4.02	0.498
Switching finite-horizon amplification	2	100	39.60	69.5	81.9	4.71	0.319
Switching finite-horizon amplification	2	300	74.75	388.1	491.3	9.31	0.324
Switching finite-horizon amplification	3	100	39.60	77.7	87.5	2.33	0.367
Switching finite-horizon amplification	3	300	74.75	518.5	608.5	5.74	0.448
Switching finite-horizon amplification	4	100	39.60	105.2	122.2	1.92	0.402
Switching finite-horizon amplification	4	300	74.75	1201.6	1350.2	4.97	0.517

Table C10: Activity schedules and dynamic-feedback settings for each scenario family.

Code	Family	Dynamic family	Switching	Gain	Dwell	Velocity feedback
A	Weak expression, one dominant dimension	Stable template	No	0.35 / 0.05	1.00 / 1.00	Negative
B	Strong expression, one dominant dimension	Stable template	No	1.00 / 0.08	1.00 / 1.00	Negative
C	Strong expression, switching dominant dimension	Stable template	Yes	1.00 / 0.08	0.20 / 0.45	Negative
D	Strong expression, rapid switching	Stable template	Yes	1.25 / 0.08	0.03 / 0.10	Negative
E	Amplifying dynamics, one dominant dimension	Amplification	No	1.00 / 0.08	1.00 / 1.00	Positive
F	Amplifying dynamics, switching dominant dimension	Amplification	Yes	1.10 / 0.10	0.12 / 0.30	Positive

Table C11: Dynamic parameters for each scenario family. Acceleration-input SD is the per-step standard deviation σ_q used in each condition.

Code	Dimensions	eta	zeta	Acceleration-input SD
A	2D	-0.30; -0.55	-1.70; -1.00	0.06; 0.15
A	3D	-0.30; -0.55; -0.85	-1.70; -1.00; -0.65	0.06; 0.15; 0.23
A	4D	-0.30; -0.55; -0.85; -1.10	-1.70; -1.00; -0.65; -0.30	0.06; 0.15; 0.23; 0.33
B	2D	-0.30; -0.55	-1.70; -1.00	0.12; 0.30
B	3D	-0.30; -0.55; -0.85	-1.70; -1.00; -0.65	0.12; 0.30; 0.45
B	4D	-0.30; -0.55; -0.85; -1.10	-1.70; -1.00; -0.65; -0.30	0.12; 0.30; 0.45; 0.65
C	2D	-0.30; -0.55	-1.70; -1.00	0.12; 0.30
C	3D	-0.30; -0.55; -0.85	-1.70; -1.00; -0.65	0.12; 0.30; 0.45
C	4D	-0.30; -0.55; -0.85; -1.10	-1.70; -1.00; -0.65; -0.30	0.12; 0.30; 0.45; 0.65

D	2D	-0.30; -0.55	-1.70; -1.00	0.15; 0.38
D	3D	-0.30; -0.55; -0.85	-1.70; -1.00; -0.65	0.15; 0.38; 0.56
D	4D	-0.30; -0.55; -0.85; -1.10	-1.70; -1.00; -0.65; -0.30	0.15; 0.38; 0.56; 0.81
E	2D	-0.05; -0.10	0.08; 0.10	0.25; 0.25
E	3D	-0.05; -0.10; -0.15	0.08; 0.10; 0.12	0.25; 0.25; 0.25
E	4D	-0.05; -0.10; -0.15; -0.20	0.08; 0.10; 0.12; 0.14	0.25; 0.25; 0.25; 0.25
F	2D	-0.05; -0.10	0.08; 0.10	0.35; 0.35
F	3D	-0.05; -0.10; -0.15	0.08; 0.10; 0.12	0.35; 0.35; 0.35
F	4D	-0.05; -0.10; -0.15; -0.20	0.08; 0.10; 0.12; 0.14	0.35; 0.35; 0.35; 0.35

Table C12: Deterministic stability diagnostics for the unique dynamic-parameter pairs used across scenario factors. The preceding table maps these pairs to scenarios and factors. The modal exponential-rate factors $g(H) = \exp\{H \max \mathrm{Re}(r)\}$ describe modal rates over the observed horizon rather than total finite-horizon state amplification. $H[100] = 39.6$ and $H[300] = 74.75$ under the stated record designs.

Scenario codes	eta	zeta	Discriminant	Max Re(root)	rho(Phi[.4])	rho(Phi[.25])	g(H[100])	g(H[300])	Regime
A, B, C, D	-1.10	-0.30	-4.3100	-0.150	0.9418	0.9632	0.0026	0.0000	Stable oscillatory
A, B, C, D	-0.85	-0.65	-2.9775	-0.325	0.8781	0.9220	0.0000	0.0000	Stable oscillatory
A, B, C, D	-0.55	-1.00	-1.2000	-0.500	0.8187	0.8825	0.0000	0.0000	Stable oscillatory
A, B, C, D	-0.30	-1.70	1.6900	-0.200	0.9231	0.9512	0.0004	0.0000	Stable nonoscillatory
E, F	-0.20	0.14	-0.7804	0.070	1.0284	1.0177	15.9906	187.2604	Finite-horizon amplifying oscillatory
E, F	-0.15	0.12	-0.5856	0.060	1.0243	1.0151	10.7618	88.6770	Finite-horizon amplifying oscillatory
E, F	-0.10	0.10	-0.3900	0.050	1.0202	1.0126	7.2427	41.9929	Finite-horizon amplifying oscillatory
E, F	-0.05	0.08	-0.1936	0.040	1.0161	1.0101	4.8744	19.8857	Finite-horizon amplifying oscillatory

C.4 Extended Factorial Simulation

The extended factorial simulation evaluated DynEGA on 518,400 datasets. It recovered the correct dimension in 93.7% of those datasets and assigned 95.2% of indicators correctly. Stronger loadings and smaller residual error improved recovery. The design, including the $T = 300$ change in observation interval, is given in Appendix B. Runtime accounting for this design is in Section C.5.

C.5 Runtime and Feasibility Accounting

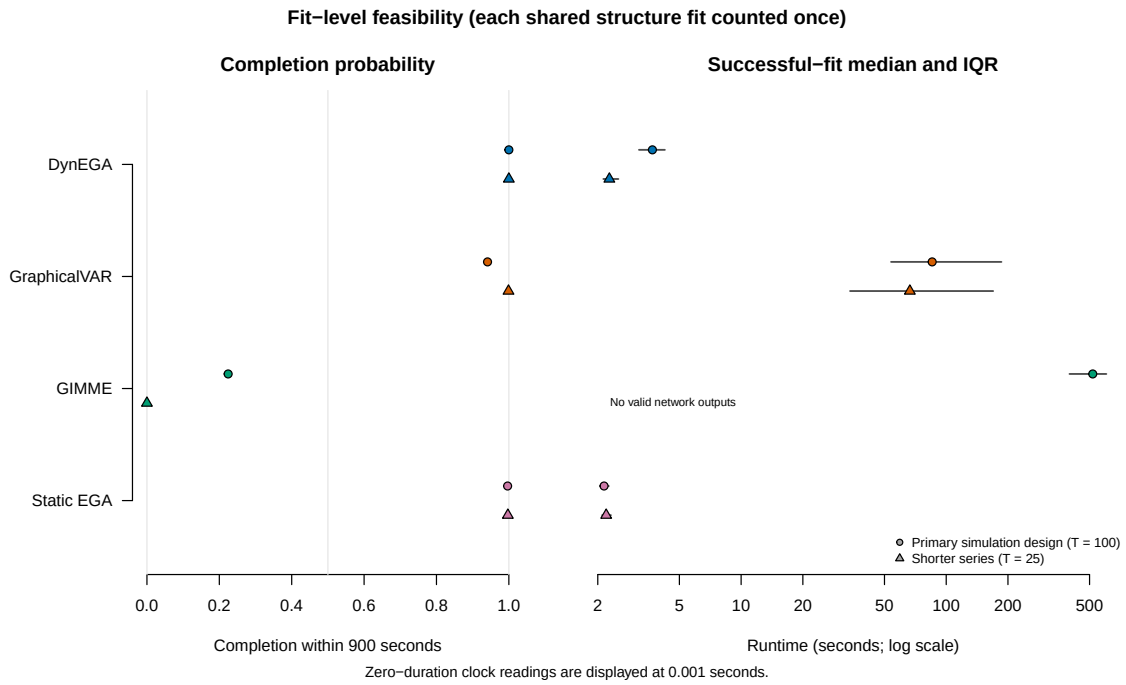


Figure C4: Runtime among valid network outputs in the primary $T = 100$ and shorter $T = 25$ designs. Points show medians and intervals show interquartile ranges on a log10 scale. Counts use unique fitted structures.

Table C13: Runtime and feasibility per method fit in the $T = 100$ primary and $T = 25$ shorter-series matched-method designs. Completion intervals resample whole simulated datasets. Runtime summaries condition on valid network outputs and include structure estimation, network extraction, and community detection. Each fitted structure is reused for Louvain, Leiden, and Walktrap.

Analysis	Time-series length	Method	Attempts	Valid outputs	Timeouts	Errors	Completion	Runtime median [IQR], s
Matched-method simulation design	$T = 100$	DynEGA	21600	21600	0	0	1.000 [1.000, 1.000]	3.69 [3.18, 4.25]
Matched-method simulation design	$T = 100$	GIMME	21600	4846	14477	2277	0.224 [0.219, 0.230]	518.16 [398.98, 603.71]
Matched-method simulation design	$T = 100$	GraphicalVAR	21600	20329	1271	0	0.941 [0.938, 0.944]	85.41 [53.82, 185.91]
Matched-method simulation design	$T = 100$	Static EGA	21600	21526	0	74	0.997 [0.996, 0.997]	2.15 [2.05, 2.26]
Matched-method simulation design	$T = 25$	DynEGA	21600	21600	0	0	1.000 [1.000, 1.000]	2.28 [2.13, 2.52]
Matched-method simulation design	$T = 25$	GIMME	21600	0	0	21600	0.000 [0.000, 0.000]	Not available
Matched-method simulation design	$T = 25$	GraphicalVAR	21600	21579	21	0	0.999 [0.999, 0.999]	66.49 [33.96, 169.39]
Matched-method simulation design	$T = 25$	Static EGA	21600	21541	0	59	0.997 [0.997, 0.998]	2.20 [2.10, 2.32]

C.6 Community-Detection Sensitivity

Louvain, Leiden, and Walktrap were applied to each retained fitted graph. Their results were closely aligned in the matched-method simulation designs (Figure C5) and led to the same interpretation of the one-at-a-time sensitivity conditions (Figure C6). These comparisons reuse fitted structures and therefore assess the community-detection step rather than estimator variability.

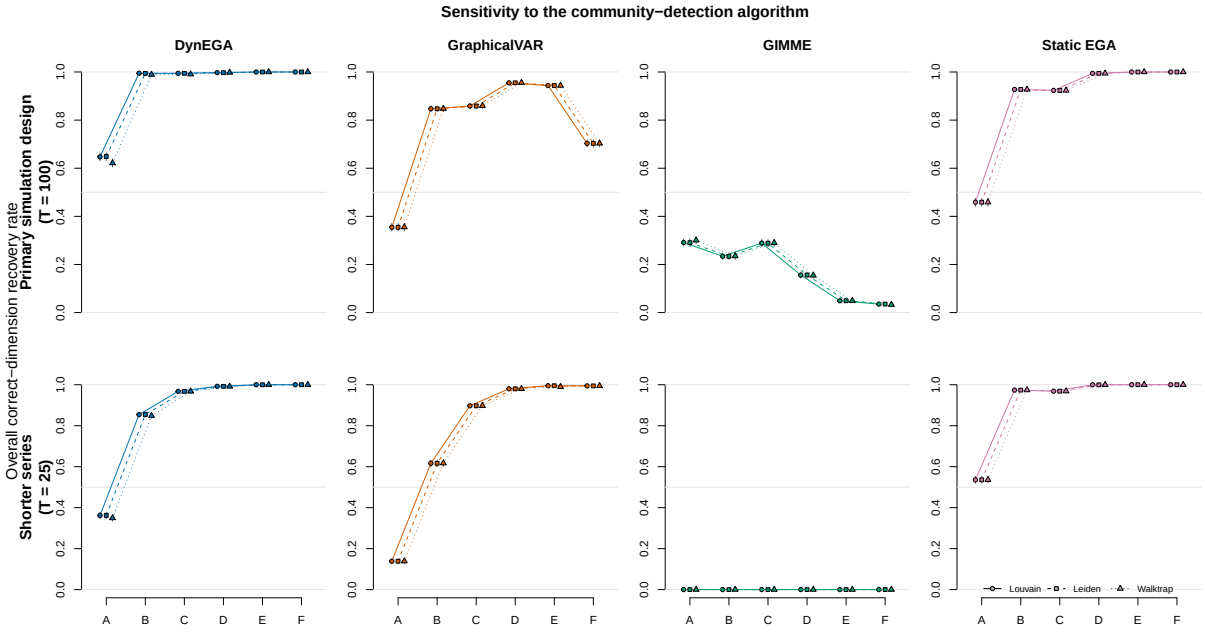


Figure C5: Overall correct-dimension recovery rates for Louvain, Leiden, and Walktrap in the $T = 100$ primary and $T = 25$ shorter-series matched-method designs. Each fitted network is reused across all three algorithms, so differences isolate the community-detection step.

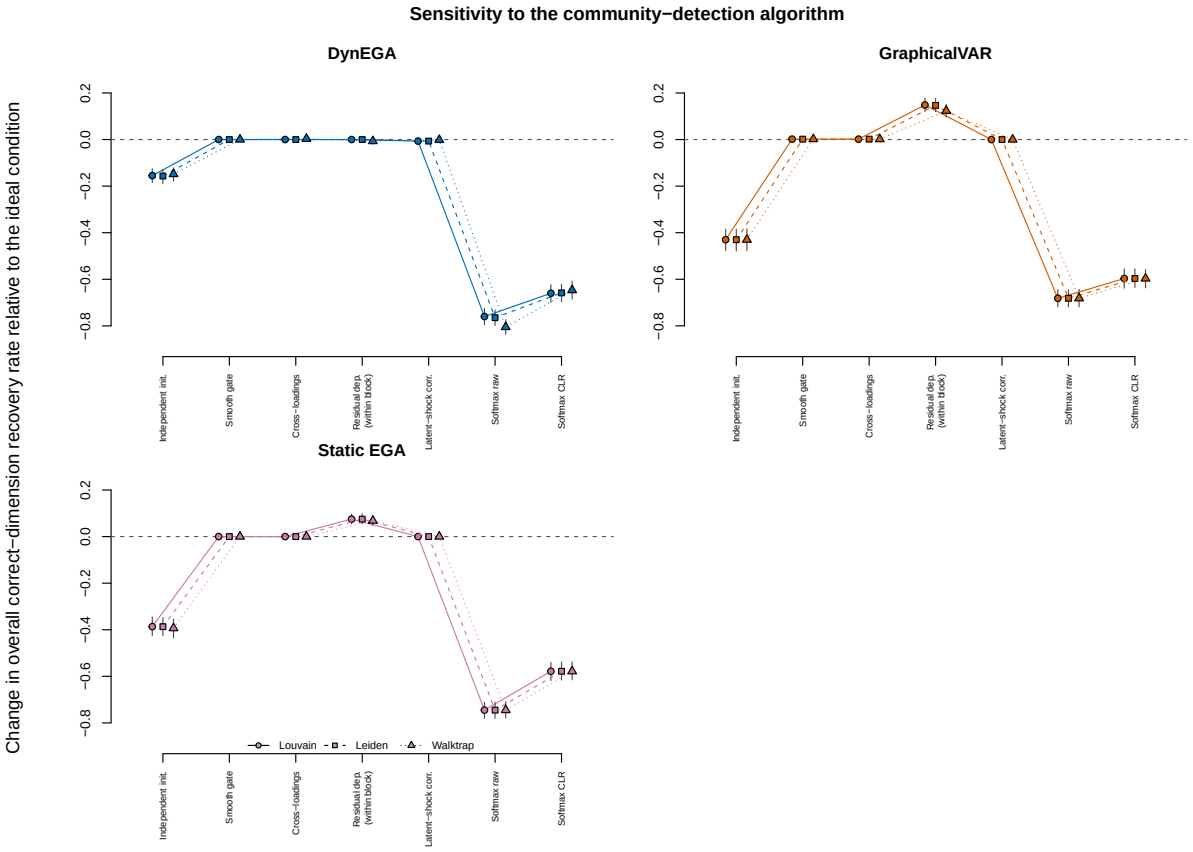


Figure C6: Sensitivity of the paired one-at-a-time effects to Louvain, Leiden, and Walktrap. Values are changes in overall correct-dimension recovery rate relative to the reference condition.